# Highlights

## Multi-Agent Reinforcement Learning for Surface–Subsurface Observation of Tropical Cyclones Using Submersible Unmanned Vessels

Yihui Ding, Xiwen Ma, Wenlei Peng, Fangzheng Qi, Jingsong Yang

- Dual-mode SUVs track surface winds and sample subsurface environments.
- Event-specific ERA5–HYCOM fields cover 500 historical TCs.
- Parameter-sharing IPPO scales TC tracking across 4–16 SUVs.
- Current and future SUV configurations are compared at both stages.

# Multi-Agent Reinforcement Learning for Surface–Subsurface Observation of Tropical Cyclones Using Submersible Unmanned Vessels

Yihui Ding[a,b,1], Xiwen Ma[a,b,c,1], Wenlei Peng[a,b], Fangzheng Qi[a,b] and Jingsong Yang[a,b,d,*]

[a]School of Oceanography, Shanghai Jiao Tong University, Shanghai, 200030, China
[b]State Key Laboratory of Satellite Ocean Environment Dynamics, Second Institute of Oceanography, Ministry of Natural Resources, Hangzhou, 310012, China
[c]Institute of Automation Chinese Academy of Sciences, Beijing, 100190, China
[d]Southern Marine Science and Engineering Guangdong Laboratory (Zhuhai), Zhuhai, 519082, China

ARTICLE INFO

*Keywords*:
tropical cyclone observation
cooperative task
submersible unmanned vessel
multi-agent reinforcement learning
surface–subsurface observation

ABSTRACT

Tropical cyclones are destructive, while intensity and rapid-intensification forecasts remain limited by sparse near-core observations. Conventional platforms rarely combine rapid transit with surface-wind and subsurface-current sensing. Blue Whale-class submersible unmanned vessels can transit rapidly at the surface to TC cores, then dive to observe temperature, salinity, currents, and biogeochemical properties. We therefore use simulation-based multi-agent reinforcement learning to enable autonomous navigation and environmental observation. The training and evaluation environments combine ERA5 10 m winds and HYCOM currents from 0 to 60 m with IBTrACS tracks for 500 western North Pacific TCs. A parameter-sharing independent proximal policy optimization (IPPO) policy maps shared surface-wind observations or local current histories to continuous control commands at 10 min intervals. The surface policy assumes idealized global sharing of observed wind information, whereas the underwater policy uses no inter-vehicle communication. We compare 12 m/s surface and 1.5 m/s submerged limits, close to current Blue Whale design speeds, with 20 m/s and 2.0 m/s as future upgrades. At the surface, the fleet follows the TC toward high-wind regions despite uncertain deployment, reducing final tracking error and improving observation benefit. Underwater, active control outperforms random control and passive drift in mean experienced current, trajectory extent, and spatial coverage. Compared with four traditional baselines, IPPO achieves better surface tracking distances. Underwater, potential field has the highest mean experienced current, A* the shortest path, and IPPO the largest current-weighted coverage. The framework provides a learning-based closed-loop methodology for future coordinated surface–subsurface TC observation with SUVs.

## 1. Introduction

Tropical cyclones (TCs) threaten coastal communities, infrastructure, and offshore operations. Climate assessments indicate that some TC changes are detectable despite observational uncertainty [1] and project an increasing proportion of very intense TCs under continued warming [2], while global TC frequency may decline [3] and rapid-intensification events have recently increased in offshore regions [4]. Landfalling TCs over the western North Pacific and China have also become more destructive, with increasing nearshore intensification and exposure [5, 6, 7, 8]. Track forecasts have improved substantially, but intensity prediction remains more difficult: recent intensity guidance has reduced errors [9], yet official forecasts in the western North Pacific continue to carry substantial uncertainty [10]. A central reason is that intensity depends on air–sea enthalpy and momentum exchange, upper-ocean heat content, barrier layers, mesoscale eddies, and TC-induced currents [11, 12].

Existing observing platforms each cover only part of this problem. Spaceborne microwave sensors provide broad but complementary and incomplete views of the near-core wind field. Active scatterometers infer surface wind from ocean backscatter, but lose sensitivity at high wind speeds and can be degraded by rain-induced attenuation and scattering [13]. Passive radiometers infer wind from ocean emissivity and can penetrate some cloud cover, but cloud liquid water, precipitation emission, and atmospheric attenuation contaminate the brightness-temperature signal [13, 14]. Neither sensor class resolves the subsurface ocean [15]. Aircraft obtain high-quality near-core measurements but are expensive and campaign-limited [16, 17], whereas gliders remain at sea for long periods but move much more slowly than a translating TC [18]. AUVs can adapt their sampling to changing environmental and vehicle states [19]. Upper-ocean observations can improve initial states and, in some cases, intensity forecasts [20, 21, 22, 23, 24], but their value is highly sensitive to sampling location and background structure. Targeted observation studies likewise show that forecast benefit depends on sensitive regions, the background state, and the sampling design [25, 26, 27]. These limitations leave near-core wind and upper-ocean states poorly constrained in many forecast initial conditions. Adaptive TC observation is therefore a sequential decision problem involving motion, sampling time, and coordination rather than coverage alone.

*Corresponding author: Jingsong Yang. Email: jsyang@sio.org.cn
ORCID(s): 0009-0009-4133-1571 (Y. Ding); 0000-0001-9212-3523 ( Xiwen Ma); 0009-0008-5974-7447 ( Fangzheng Qi); 0000-0002-7514-3212 ( Jingsong Yang)
[1]These authors contributed equally to this work.

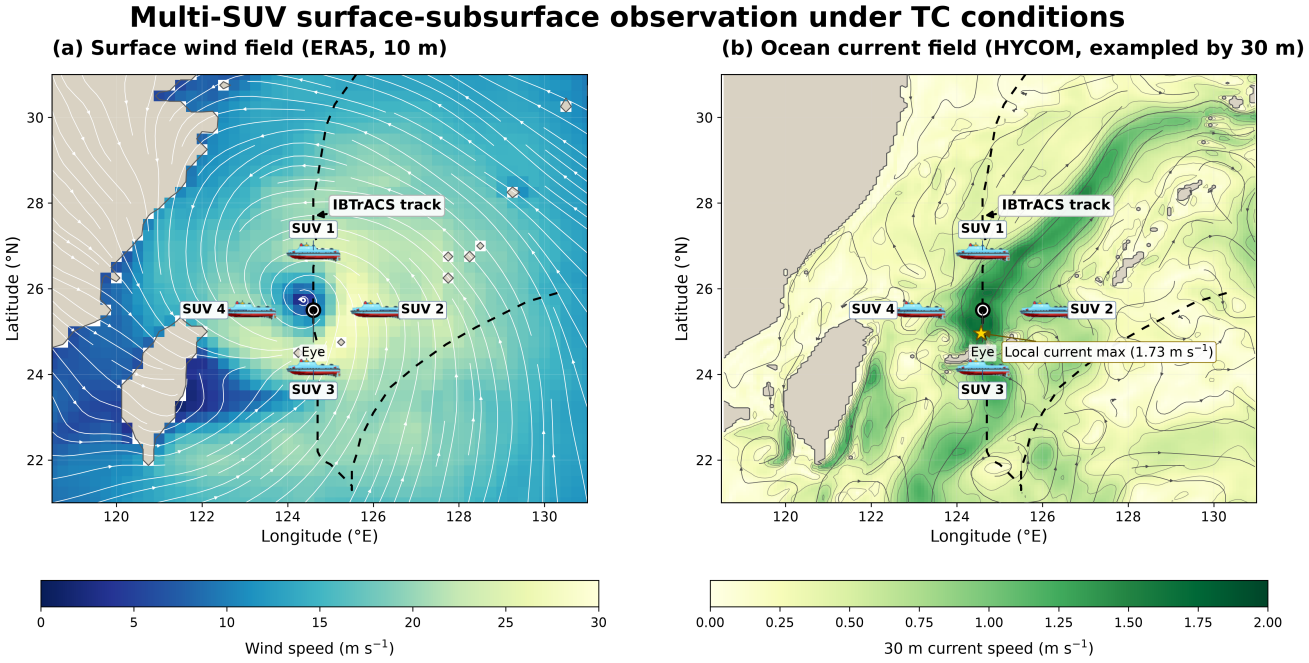



**Figure 1:** Coordinated surface–subsurface TC observation for a representative HINNAMNOR (2022) snapshot. The left panel shows four SUVs tracking the IBTrACS best track while sampling ERA5 winds at 10 m above the sea surface. The right panel shows the same formation sampling HYCOM currents at 30 m below the sea surface; this depth is shown as an illustrative example, whereas the complete experiments cover the seven depths from 0 to 60 m. The four-vehicle configuration is illustrative, with equal angular spacing; subsequent experiments evaluate fleets of 8, 12, and 16 vehicles.

A submersible unmanned vessel (SUV) combines rapid surface transit with subsurface sensing [28, 29, 30, 31]. The operational concept assumes that the SUVs are deployed from a mother ship, such as a large research vessel or an equivalent offshore support ship, or from an offshore floating platform such as the Shanghai Jiao Tong University Far-Seas Floating Island (*Yuanhai Fudongdao*). Such platforms can provide rapid relocation, long-duration station keeping, and deployment of heavy marine equipment [32, 33, 34]. The Blue Whale is used as an engineering reference: its public specifications indicate a surface speed of about 23 kn (11.83 m/s), a submerged speed of about 3 kn (1.54 m/s), and an observational payload that includes an acoustic Doppler current profiler and a CTD sensor, with a public reference depth of approximately 60 m [28]. This study uses the current Blue Whale's surface–subsurface motion capabilities as the reference parameterization and evaluates a possible future-upgrade configuration as a comparison case. The vehicles are simplified as point masses for path planning. In the proposed mission, the surface fleet observes 10 m winds, follows the TC toward the high-wind region as closely as possible, and is evaluated by its final tracking error. At depth, four SUVs are assigned to each prescribed layer and seek the strongest observable current. Figure 1 illustrates this surface-to-subsurface task switch; four vehicles are shown at the surface as an example, and the same parameter-sharing policy is later evaluated with 4, 8, 12, and 16 SUVs.

Traditional graph search, sampling-based planning, potential fields, and model predictive control are effective when the cost map and dynamics are known [35, 36, 37, 38, 39, 40]. In a TC, however, the fields are nonstationary and only locally observed, while propulsion is superimposed on ambient flow. Conventional pipelines also estimate a field or waypoint sequence before execution. By contrast, reinforcement learning (RL) maps each new measurement directly to the next action, closing the observation–decision–motion loop. RL has demonstrated strong sequential decision making across diverse domains [41, 42, 43, 44, 45, 46, 47, 48], and independent PPO is competitive in cooperative multi-agent tasks [49, 50, 51]. Multi-AUV adaptive sampling and target tracking provide the ocean-robotics foundations [52, 53, 54, 55, 56].

Three gaps remain. First, prior AUV-based TC studies have focused primarily on center tracking or near-surface observation planning rather than coordinated surface–subsurface observation driven by event-specific reanalysis fields [57, 58]. Second, track-forecast errors require rapid, adaptive transit from an uncertain deployment point to the high-wind region [25, 26, 27]. Third, the closest multi-AUV active-observation study did not test fleet-size scaling [58]. We therefore formulate stochastic policy optimization under partial observability [59, 49, 50], extend prior AUV center-tracking and near-surface active-observation studies [57, 58] to event-specific surface–subsurface observation, and evaluate 4-, 8-, 12-, and 16-SUV fleets.

The main contributions of this study are summarized as follows.

1. We construct an event-specific learning environment for 500 TCs by aligning ERA5 10 m winds, HYCOM currents at seven depths from 0 to 60 m, and IBTrACS tracks.
2. Using globally shared wind-speed observations, parameter-sharing IPPO learns inward motion from training-time center rewards and lowers the final tracking error, measuring how closely the surface fleet follows the TC and enters the high-wind region.
3. We compare active IPPO, random control, and passive drift for subsurface observation with four SUVs at each depth, evaluating mean experienced current speed, trajectory length, and spatial coverage as complementary observation objectives.
4. We compare MARL with four causal traditional planners: an artificial potential-field planner, a receding-horizon A* planner, a lawnmower coverage planner, and an information-greedy planner.

## 2. Problem Formulation

### 2.1. Observation Task and Design Requirements

The objective is to coordinate a fleet of submersible unmanned vessels (SUVs) to observe a moving tropical cyclone (TC) across the sea surface and upper ocean. At the surface, each SUV navigates toward the predicted TC center and high-wind region, with the final tracking error used to evaluate how closely the fleet follows the TC. In the operational concept, the fleet would descend after approaching a predefined high-wind observation window. The learning experiments evaluate this mission as two separate episodes: a surface approach episode and a subsurface sampling episode in which four SUVs seek the highest attainable current speed at each prescribed depth. The framework is designed to satisfy four operational requirements:

1. rapid correction of initial deployment errors using surface propulsion;
2. decentralized tracking of the moving TC using onboard wind observations and inter-vehicle observation sharing;
3. subsurface observation at ocean depths of 0, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, and 60 m below the sea surface;
4. safe operation under action-smoothness and coastline constraints.

The surface maximum speed is varied between 12 and 20 m/s, while the submerged maximum propulsion speed is 1.5 or 2.0 m/s. This difference creates an asymmetric decision problem: surface propulsion is used to follow the TC and reach the high-wind region as closely as possible, quantified primarily by the final tracking error. At depth, the primary learning objective changes to finding and sampling higher-current water, while trajectory length and spatial coverage characterize how broadly the fleet explores the dynamically active region. The four SUVs must therefore weigh active propulsion against passive advection by the ambient current.

### 2.2. Problem Definition

The fleet contains $N$ SUVs, where $N \in \{4, 8, 12, 16\}$, indexed by $i \in \{1, 2, \ldots, N\}$. The position, propulsion velocity, and operating mode of SUV $i$ at time $t$ are denoted by $\mathbf{x}_i(t)$, $\mathbf{p}_i(t)$, and $m_i(t) \in \{\mathrm{s}, \mathrm{u}\}$, respectively, where s and u denote the surface and subsurface modes. Horizontal positions and reported distances are expressed in km, whereas propulsion and ocean-current velocities are expressed in m/s. The propulsion speed satisfies

$$\|\mathbf{p}_i(t)\| \le \begin{cases} V^{\mathrm{s}}_{\max}, & m_i(t) = \mathrm{s}, \\ V^{\mathrm{u}}_{\max}, & m_i(t) = \mathrm{u}. \end{cases} \tag{1}$$

Each simulated episode is assigned to one stage, consistent with the separate surface and subsurface environments used in training and evaluation. Thus, $m_i(t)$ selects the applicable speed bound and motion law for that episode; continuous diving, ballast transitions, and resurfacing are not simulated within a single decision trajectory.

For the motion equations, the km/min representations of propulsion and ocean-current velocities are denoted by $\mathbf{v}_i^{\mathrm{p}}$ and $\mathbf{v}_{\mathrm{ocean}}$; the device-level speed bounds above remain reported in m/s. The horizontal motion in km is

$$\dot{\mathbf{x}}_i(t) = \begin{cases} \mathbf{v}_i^{\mathrm{p}}(t), & m_i(t) = \mathrm{s}, \\ \mathbf{v}_i^{\mathrm{p}}(t) + \mathbf{v}_{\mathrm{ocean}}\left(\mathbf{x}_i(t), z_i, t\right), & m_i(t) = \mathrm{u}, \end{cases} \tag{2}$$

where $z_i \in \{0, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, 60\}$ m. Time $t$ is measured in minutes, and $\mathbf{v}_{\mathrm{ocean}}(\cdot)$ is the HYCOM current at the corresponding position and depth. Thus, the underwater ground velocity is the superposition of active propulsion and background advection.

For numerical implementation, the continuous model is integrated explicitly at the decision interval $\Delta t = 10$ min:

$$\mathbf{x}_{i,k+1} = \mathbf{x}_{i,k} + \Delta t \begin{cases} \mathbf{v}^{\mathrm{p}}_{i,k}, & m_{i,k} = \mathrm{s}, \\ \mathbf{v}^{\mathrm{p}}_{i,k} + \mathbf{v}_{\mathrm{ocean}}(\mathbf{x}_{i,k}, z_i, t_k), & m_{i,k} = \mathrm{u}. \end{cases} \tag{3}$$

Here $\Delta t = 10$ min. The current field is evaluated at the beginning of each interval and interpolated to the current vehicle position. For the active underwater reward, we write this pre-move current as $\mathbf{u}_{i,k} = \mathbf{u}_{\mathrm{ocean}}(\mathbf{x}_{i,k}, z_i, t_k)$.

This equation is deliberately a reduced-order horizontal point-mass kinematic–advection model rather than a six-degree-of-freedom rigid-body dynamic model. It does not resolve added mass, hydrodynamic drag, roll, pitch, yaw or heading dynamics, buoyancy and ballast dynamics, thruster transients, wave loads, or actuator delay. This simplification is consistent with the information content of the environmental forcing. ERA5 winds are available at 0.25° and hourly resolution, whereas HYCOM currents are available at approximately 0.04° by 0.08° and three-hourly resolution. These fields are interpolated to the 10 min decision interval and to each vehicle position, but such interpolation does not recover high-frequency wave forcing, local wake effects, or unobserved vehicle attitude and actuator states. Introducing a detailed six-degree-of-freedom model

would therefore require platform-specific hydrodynamic coefficients and forcing information that are not commensurate with the present data, and could imply a level of numerical precision unsupported by the inputs. The reduced model retains the first-order effects relevant to mission-level planning: mode-dependent speed limits, propulsion commands, ambient-current advection in subsurface mode, and coastal constraints. Accordingly, the results are interpreted as mission-planning and coordination evidence rather than as predictions of attitude, structural loading, or low-level controller response. Coupling this planning layer to an experimentally calibrated six-degree-of-freedom vehicle model is left for future work.

### 2.3. Surface–Subsurface Two-Stage Task

The SUVs first perform surface tracking, using coordinated propulsion to follow the TC and approach its high-wind region. For the operational protocol, we assume that descent begins after the surface fleet enters the terminal region defined by a final tracking error of at most 200 km. The simulation uses this 200 km value as the upper bound on the tracking error at the surface-to-subsurface transition and initializes the subsurface vehicles within the corresponding 200 km disk around the TC center at the end time of the surface segment. Because the present simulation does not model descent dynamics, the surface and subsurface stages are represented as two time-aligned but state-independent episodes. The descent duration is simplified: after the surface stage, each vehicle is assumed to arrive immediately at one prescribed depth. Each depth is a separate configuration with four SUVs, and a single episode does not visit multiple depths. At the end of the underwater observation task, the operational concept returns the SUVs to the sea surface for recovery. This ascent and recovery phase is not modeled here; the paper models only the surface observation-and-tracking stage and the subsequent fixed-depth underwater observation stage.

The local observation of SUV $i$ is

$$\mathbf{o}_i(t) = \begin{cases} \left[\mathbf{s}_i(t),\, \mathbf{v}_i(t)\right], & m_i(t) = \mathrm{s}, \\ \left[\mathbf{h}_i(t),\, \mathbf{v}_i(t)\right], & m_i(t) = \mathrm{u}, \end{cases} \tag{4}$$

where $\mathbf{s}_i(t)$ is the stage-specific measurement block, $\mathbf{v}_i(t)$ is the normalized commanded propulsion velocity $\mathbf{v}_i = \mathbf{p}_i / V_{\max}^{m_i(t)}$, and $\mathbf{h}_i(t)$ is an optional causal history block. In the final surface experiments, $\mathbf{s}_i(t) \in \mathbb{R}^{3N}$ contains the normalized speed and two wind components at 10 m above the sea surface sampled by all $N$ SUVs; the surface policy has no history block. Surface operation assumes idealized, lossless, and instantaneous inter-vehicle communication: every SUV receives the wind observations acquired by all other SUVs in the fleet as part of its policy input. In the underwater active-control comparison, no inter-vehicle communication is assumed. The observation contains no separate instantaneous-current block in addition to the history; instead, define the local current feature $\mathbf{c}_{i,t} = [\|\mathbf{u}_{\mathrm{ocean}}(\mathbf{x}_{i,t}, z_i, t)\|, u_{\mathrm{ocean},x}, u_{\mathrm{ocean},y}]^\top$, where $\mathbf{u}_{\mathrm{ocean}} = (u_{\mathrm{ocean},x}, u_{\mathrm{ocean},y})$, and $\mathbf{h}_i(t) = [\mathbf{c}_{i,t-4}^\top, \ldots, \mathbf{c}_{i,t}^\top]^\top \in \mathbb{R}^{15}$, which is the causal five-frame history of SUV $i$'s current speed and two components at its assigned depth; before five measurements are available, the earliest observed frame is repeated to fill the history. Each underwater SUV therefore knows neither the current observations nor the positions or actions of the other SUVs. The complete reanalysis field, the global best-track center, and future environmental states are not provided to the policy. These two communication assumptions are intentionally different and mark the bounds of the present study. The ideal all-to-all surface link represents a favorable satellite or radio-connected operating mode and is therefore an upper-bound assumption. The no-communication underwater case is the conservative opposite bound: shared policy parameters are loaded separately on each vehicle, but no observation, position, or action is exchanged at runtime. The surface payload is $3N$ scalar wind values per vehicle per decision, whereas the underwater inter-vehicle message payload is zero. The reported experiments do not model bandwidth, packet loss, acoustic latency, or intermittent surfacing. Accordingly, neither the ideal surface link nor the fully decentralized subsurface case is presented as a validated communication system. Accordingly, the surface observation dimension is $d_o^{\mathrm{s}} = 3N + 2$. The underwater five-frame history contains $5 \times 3 = 15$ scalars; adding the two normalized propulsion components gives $d_o^{\mathrm{u}} = 15 + 2 = 17$.

During training, the reward function can access the distance between each SUV and the best-track TC center. This distance supervises the association between local 10 m wind patterns and proximity to the TC center/high-wind region; the center coordinate itself is not an actor input. During validation, rewards do not influence actions. The frozen policy receives only the shared fleet-level wind samples and must track an unseen TC, thereby testing whether the learned wind-to-center relation generalizes.

The normalized action is

$$\mathbf{a}_i(t) \in [-1, 1]^2, \tag{5}$$

and is projected onto the unit disk before being mapped to propulsion in both modes:

$$\tilde{\mathbf{a}}_i(t) = \frac{\mathbf{a}_i(t)}{\max\left(1, \|\mathbf{a}_i(t)\|_2\right)}, \qquad \mathbf{p}_i(t) = V_{\max}^{m_i(t)} \bar{\mathbf{a}}_i(t). \tag{6}$$

This mapping ensures that the total propulsion speed never exceeds the mode-specific speed limit. Here $\bar{\mathbf{a}}_i(t)$ is the executed normalized command after action smoothing, unit-disk projection, and any stage-specific safety projection; without a safety intervention, $\bar{\mathbf{a}}_i(t) = \tilde{\mathbf{a}}_i(t)$.

The cooperative task is formulated as a decentralized partially observable Markov decision process (Dec-POMDP):

$$\mathcal{M} = \langle \mathcal{I}, \mathcal{S}, \{\mathcal{A}_i\}, P, R, \{\Omega_i\}, O, \gamma \rangle, \tag{7}$$

where $\mathcal{I}$ is the set of SUVs, $\mathcal{S}$ is the joint environment state, $\mathcal{A}_i$ and $\Omega_i$ are the local action and observation spaces

**Table 1**
Environmental datasets used to construct the 500-TC observation environments. The dataset integrates ERA5 surface winds, HYCOM currents at seven depths, and IBTrACS best tracks.

| Data product | Source | Variables used | Native grid | Native time |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| Surface wind at 10 m above sea level | ERA5 | $u_{10}$, $v_{10}$, speed, direction | $0.25° \times 0.25°$ | Hourly |
| Current at 0–60 m ocean depth | HYCOM | water_u, water_v, speed at 0/10/20/30/40/50/60 m | $\sim 0.04°$ lat $\times 0.08°$ lon | 3-hourly |
| Best track | IBTrACS | Position, time, wind, pressure | Point track | Mainly 3/6-hourly |

Note: although the SUV platform can carry sensors for observing temperature, salinity, and currents, the reinforcement-learning policy uses only surface wind and subsurface current observations as environmental inputs.

of vehicle $i$, $P(s_{t+1} \mid s_t, \mathbf{a}_t)$ is the transition probability, $R(s_t, \mathbf{a}_t, s_{t+1}) \in \mathbb{R}^N$ is the local-reward vector, and $O(\mathbf{o}_{t+1} \mid s_{t+1}, \mathbf{a}_t)$ is the joint observation function. The shared team reward before clipping is $\bar{r}_t = N^{-1} \sum_{i=1}^{N} r_{i,t}$, where $r_{i,t}$ is the $i$th element of $R(s_t, \mathbf{a}_t, s_{t+1})$, and $\gamma$ is the discount factor.

The policy operates as a closed perception–decision–action loop rather than following a precomputed route. At each 10 min interval,

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{o}_{i,t} &\longrightarrow \mathbf{a}_{i,t} = \pi_\theta(\mathbf{o}_{i,t}) \\ &\longrightarrow \mathbf{x}_{i,t+1} \longrightarrow \mathbf{o}_{i,t+1}. \end{aligned} \tag{8}$$

Each updated observation therefore becomes the next control input. This feedback structure lets the fleet adapt to changing wind and current fields, partial observability, and deployment uncertainty without a static waypoint sequence.

## 3. Data and Simulation Environment

### 3.1. Reanalysis and Best-Track Products

ERA5 supplies hourly zonal and meridional wind components at 10 m above the sea surface on a regular 0.25° grid [1] [60]. Wind speed and direction are calculated from $u_{10}$ and $v_{10}$. HYCOM supplies three-hourly zonal and meridional currents at ocean depths of 0, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, and 60 m below the sea surface [2] [61]. The native horizontal grid is approximately 0.04° in latitude by 0.08° in longitude. IBTrACS provides TC time, center position, maximum wind, minimum pressure, and related metadata at mostly 3 or 6 h intervals [3] [62]. The dataset-selection domain used to identify candidate systems is 98.7°E–171.6°E and 6.8°N–56.7°N. Individual event fields are stored on event-specific crops, so a track may extend beyond this screening box. The overall event set spans 19 November 2007 to 3 December 2025 UTC. Thus, the surface observation variable is the 10 m wind speed and direction, whereas the subsurface observation variables are the horizontal current velocity, represented by water_u and water_v, and the derived current speed over the 0–60 m layer. Table 1 summarizes the products, variables, native grids, and temporal resolutions used to construct the event-specific environments.

[1] ERA5 download portal: https://cds.climate.copernicus.eu/datasets/reanalysis-era5-single-levels.

[2] HYCOM GLBy0.08 dataset: https://www.hycom.org/data/glby0p08/expt-93pt0; HYCOM ESPC-D-V02 dataset: https://www.hycom.org/data/espcd-v02.

[3] IBTrACS download portal: https://www.ncei.noaa.gov/products/international-best-track-archive.

### 3.2. Spatiotemporal Alignment and Track Segmentation

Hourly ERA5 winds and three-hourly HYCOM currents are linearly interpolated to a common 10 min simulation clock and queried at each SUV position. The environmental trajectories are precomputed and do not respond to vehicle motion; this one-way forcing assumption is appropriate for mission-level planning at the scale of a TC. The policy receives only local reconstructed values at the current time, not future fields or the complete reanalysis map. Invalid interpolated values are replaced by a neutral value, and all policy observations are checked for finiteness. The best-track center is used only for training rewards and evaluation.

Commands are held constant within each decision interval:

$$\mathbf{a}_i(t) = \mathbf{a}_{i,k}, \quad t_k \le t < t_{k+1}, \quad t_{k+1} - t_k = \Delta t = 10\,\text{min}. \tag{9}$$

The environmental fields, TC track, action, and position update therefore share one causal time grid. The 10 min step balances control responsiveness against the hourly and three-hourly resolution of the source products; a shorter step would add samples without adding resolved information. The same interval is used for IPPO and all traditional planners.

Each IBTrACS track is first linearly interpolated to the 10 min simulation interval. The cumulative along-track distance is computed using the local equirectangular approximation

$$\Delta s_k = \sqrt{\left[111 \Delta\lambda_k \cos(\varphi_k)\right]^2 + \left(111 \Delta\varphi_k\right)^2}, \tag{10}$$

where $\Delta\lambda_k$ and $\Delta\varphi_k$ are longitudinal and latitudinal increments in degrees, and 111 km is the mean meridional arc length per degree. Target segment lengths are sampled uniformly from 300–500 km, with a fixed 250 km stride, 50–250 km overlap, and an average overlap of about 150 km. Residual track shorter than 300 km is discarded. After assignment to 10 min track samples, realized lengths range from 292.1 to 507.1 km, with a median of 396.4 km.

The 500-TC dataset yields 7,248 segments from 495 TCs. The 450-TC training split contributes 6,480 segments from 445 usable TCs, whereas the 50 held-out TCs contribute 768 segments. The split is made at the TC level, so no TC appears in both sets. Segment durations range from 2.2 to 103 h. The median duration was 16.5 h and the mean was 20.0 h. These segments provide mission-scale evaluation windows; battery depletion is not simulated.

**Table 2**
Public Blue Whale reference and the two simulation configurations. The second simulation column is a simple parameterization of the present-day reference platform, whereas the third represents a possible future-upgrade configuration with higher surface and subsurface speeds for comparison. These scenarios are modeling assumptions, not certified vehicle data. The 20 h value is a common simulation horizon, not a platform-endurance claim.

| Property | Public reference | Current-platform scenario | Future-upgrade scenario |
|---|---|---|---|
| Role | Engineering reference | Simple current-platform parameterization | Potential future capability |
| Surface speed | 23 kn, ≈11.83 m/s | 12 m/s | 20 m/s |
| Submerged speed | 3 kn, ≈1.54 m/s | 1.5 m/s | 2.0 m/s |
| Public-reference submerged endurance | ≥4 h at 3 kn; ≥72 h standby | – | – |
| Underwater evaluation horizon | – | 20 h simulation | 20 h simulation |
| Sampling depth | ≈60 m | 0–60 m, seven layers | 0–60 m, seven layers |
| Payload | ≥800 kg | 800 kg | 800 kg |
| Surface fleet size | Single platform | 4/8/12/16 | 4/8/12/16 |
| Decision interval | Not specified | 10 min | 10 min |
| Surface formation | – | 100 km ring, $360°/N$ | 100 km ring, $360°/N$ |

The platform can carry current, CTD, pH, chlorophyll, and turbidity sensors [28], while the control experiments use current velocity as the decision-making observation.

# 4. Multi-Agent Reinforcement Learning Method

## 4.1. Blue Whale-Class Platform Modeling

Each SUV is represented as a horizontal point mass with mode-dependent speed bounds and position updates from Eqs. (1)–(2). The surface actor uses globally shared 10 m wind observations and its normalized velocity, whereas the underwater actor uses a causal five-frame history of its local current and normalized velocity. Path length is reported for evaluation but is not an actor input. Surface motion neglects ocean-current advection because 12–20 m/s propulsion dominates the relevant surface transport; underwater motion retains advection because 1.5–2.0 m/s propulsion is comparable to the TC-induced current.

The two simulation configurations compare present and potential future platform capabilities. The 12 m/s surface and 1.5 m/s submerged limits are close to the public Blue Whale design speeds, whereas 20 m/s and 2.0 m/s represent a future-upgrade case. Table 2 reports the complete parameterization and identifies all values that are modeling assumptions rather than certified specifications.

Across 30,498 IBTrACS track samples, the median, 95th-percentile, and 99th-percentile TC translation speeds are 5.14, 13.38, and 20.06 m/s (Table 3). The 12 and 20 m/s surface limits cover 93.8% and 98.9% of these samples, respectively. The submerged limits cover only 3.6% and 7.8%; the subsurface task is therefore local adaptive sampling within the 200 km initialization region, not overtaking and following the TC center.

## 4.2. Surface and Subsurface Reward Design

The surface objective is to follow the translating TC as closely as possible and reach the high-wind region, with the final tracking error as the primary operational metric. Let $d_{i,k+1}$ denote the post-transition distance from SUV $i$ to the TC center after executing the command at decision step $k$. The surface reward used in the implementation is

$$\begin{aligned} r_i^{\mathrm{surf}} = & -\frac{\min(d_{i,k+1}, D_{\max})}{D_{\mathrm{scale}}} + b_{\mathrm{near}} \mathbf{1}_{d_{i,k+1}<d_{\mathrm{near}}} \\ & - \frac{W_{\mathrm{form}} \max(0, d_{i,k+1} - R_{\mathrm{form}})}{D_{\mathrm{scale}}} \\ & - \lambda_u \|\bar{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k} - \bar{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k-1}\|_2^2 + r_i^{\mathrm{coast}}, \end{aligned} \tag{11}$$

where the first term is a bounded proximity cost and the second term provides a discrete near-center bonus with $b_{\mathrm{near}} = 1$. Here $D_{\max} = 300$ km caps the proximity cost, $D_{\mathrm{scale}} = 100$ km normalizes the distance terms, and $d_{\mathrm{near}} = 100$ km defines the near-center reward region. The third term adds an additional radius-excess penalty beyond $R_{\mathrm{form}} = 100$ km, and the fourth term penalizes abrupt action changes with $\lambda_u = 0.05$. The term $r_i^{\mathrm{coast}}$ represents the coastal-safety reward defined below. The 300 km cap prevents distant errors from producing an excessively steep gradient and reduces premature policy collapse during early training. After aggregation over SUVs, the team average reward is clipped to $[-5, 2]$.

For subsurface observation, four SUVs are assigned to each prescribed depth. Their primary objective is not to follow the surface TC center directly, but to observe the highest possible current speed. Trajectory length and spatial coverage are then evaluated as complementary measures of observation extent. Low-speed SUVs cannot generally overtake a translating TC, and the vertical projection of the surface center is not necessarily the location of the strongest subsurface current. For the active-control comparison, the

**Table 3**
IBTrACS TC translation speeds for the 500-TC dataset. The percentages denote the fraction of main-track samples not exceeding each platform speed. These values describe the speed envelope only; tracking also depends on bearing error and remaining segment duration.

| Quantity | P50 | P90 | P95 | P99 | Samples | TCs |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| TC translation speed (m $s^{-1}$) | 5.14 | 9.77 | 13.38 | 20.06 | 30,498 | 500 |
| Envelope | Samples within speed | | Samples above speed | | Interpretation | |
| 1.5 m/s submerged | 3.6% | | 96.4% | | local sampling, not TC chasing | |
| 2.0 m/s submerged | 7.8% | | 92.2% | | local sampling, not TC chasing | |
| 12 m/s surface | 93.8% | | 6.2% | | current-platform scenario | |
| 20 m/s surface | 98.9% | | 1.1% | | future-upgrade scenario | |

current-seeking reward is

$$r_i^{\mathrm{sub}} = \min\left(\frac{\|\mathbf{u}_{i,k}\|}{V_{\mathrm{norm}}}, R_{\max}\right) - \lambda_E \|\tilde{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k}\|_2^2 + \beta_{\|} \max(0, \cos\theta_i) + r_i^{\mathrm{coast}}, \tag{12}$$

where $V_{\mathrm{norm}} = 1.0$ m/s, $R_{\max} = 2.0$, $\lambda_E = 0.05$, and $\beta_{\|} = 0.5$. The angle $\theta_i$ denotes the direction difference between propulsion and the pre-move current $\mathbf{u}_{i,k}$, so the positive-alignment term is activated only when the SUV pushes downstream; formally, we define $\cos\theta_i = 0$ when either vector is zero and otherwise set $\cos\theta_i = (\tilde{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k} \cdot \mathbf{u}_{i,k})/(\|\tilde{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k}\|_2 \|\mathbf{u}_{i,k}\|_2)$. The current-intensity reward is therefore evaluated at $\mathbf{x}_{i,k}$ before the state update. For the local maximum-current objective, passive drift is retained as the no-propulsion reference because it follows the ambient flow directly and does not depend on a learned reward policy.

## 4.3. Coastal Safety and Action Smoothing

The land mask is converted into a nonnegative offshore-distance field. A vehicle inside land receives a large penalty, and a vehicle within the buffer distance $D_{\mathrm{buf}}$ receives

$$r_i^{\mathrm{coast}} = \begin{cases} -P_{\mathrm{land}}, & D_i = 0, \\ -W_b \max(0, 1 - D_i/D_{\mathrm{buf}}), & 0 < D_i < D_{\mathrm{buf}}, \\ 0, & D_i \geq D_{\mathrm{buf}}, \end{cases} \tag{13}$$

where $D_i = D(\mathbf{x}_{i,k+1})$ is the post-transition offshore distance, with $D_i = 0$ on land, and $P_{\mathrm{land}}$ and $W_b$ are positive penalty coefficients.

For the surface stage, three complementary mechanisms reduce coastline intrusion: offshore-only rejection sampling during deployment, a soft nearshore penalty, and an action-level safety filter. The main surface experiments use a minimum deployment distance of 100 km, a 100 km nearshore buffer, and a 100 km safety margin. Best-of-rejection deployment favors offshore initial states, the reward discourages trajectories near land, and the safety filter removes the onshore action component when an SUV approaches the shoreline. For the subsurface stage, the nearshore penalty is retained and an episode is truncated at landfall, but offshore-only initialization and action-level safety filtering are not applied. These mechanisms reduce land exposure in the surface results but are not posed as an unconditional hard constraint on every vehicle position.

To reduce oscillatory control, the main surface experiments use an exponential action filter:

$$\mathbf{a}_k^{\mathrm{filt}} = (1 - \beta)\mathbf{a}_k^{\mathrm{raw}} + \beta \mathbf{a}_{k-1}^{\mathrm{filt}}, \tag{14}$$

where $\beta \in [0, 1)$ controls the degree of temporal smoothing. The filter uses only the current and previous actions and therefore does not introduce future-information leakage. The filtered command $\mathbf{a}_k^{\mathrm{filt}}$ is then passed through the unit-disk projection and speed mapping in Eq. (6).

## 4.4. Parameter-Sharing Independent PPO

All SUVs contribute to the same observation and tracking objective, and the training return is defined as the team-average reward. The problem is therefore a fully cooperative task, rather than a competitive or mixed cooperative–competitive task. This cooperative reward structure motivates the use of IPPO, in which decentralized vehicle actions are optimized against a common team objective while policy parameters are shared across vehicles.

In this paper, IPPO denotes the cooperative and parameter-sharing implementation of independent PPO. All SUVs use the same actor and critic weights, while their observations and action samples remain vehicle-specific. Actions are sampled independently, and the per-agent values are summed for training without a global-state centralized critic. The main surface model uses a memoryless multilayer perceptron, whereas the active underwater controller uses a five-frame current history. The shared cooperative return is the team-average reward, with value estimate $V_\phi(\mathbf{o}_t) = \sum_{i \in \mathcal{I}} v_\phi(\mathbf{o}_{i,t})$, and a single clipped PPO objective is optimized over the factorized multi-agent action vector:

$$L^{\mathrm{CLIP}}(\theta) = \mathbb{E}_t\Big[\min\Big(\rho_t(\theta)\hat{A}_t, \mathrm{clip}\left(\rho_t(\theta), 1 - \epsilon, 1 + \epsilon\right)\hat{A}_t\Big)\Big], \tag{15}$$

where

$$\rho_t(\theta) = \prod_{i \in \mathcal{I}} \frac{\pi_\theta(a_{i,t} \mid o_{i,t})}{\pi_{\theta_{\mathrm{old}}}(a_{i,t} \mid o_{i,t})}, \tag{16}$$

**Algorithm 1** Training and deployment of parameter-sharing IPPO

**Input:** Training TC split, stage-specific environment, fleet size $N$, speed limit $V_{\max}$, reward coefficients, and random seed
**Output:** Shared actor and critic parameters

Initialize the actor, critic, and parallel environment workers
**for** training iteration $m = 1, \dots, M$ **do**
  Reset the stage-specific environment and obtain $\mathbf{o}_{i,t}$ for all $i = 1, \dots, N$
  **for** rollout step $t$ **do**
    Sample or select an action for each SUV from $\pi_\theta(\cdot \mid \mathbf{o}_{i,t})$
    Apply the stage-specific action filter, project each agent's action onto the unit disk, and apply the safety filter
    Advance all SUVs and collect the team-average reward
  **end for**
  Compute GAE advantages and returns for the team-average reward
  Update the shared actor and critic with the clipped PPO objective
**end for**
Freeze the actor and load the same parameters on every SUV
**for** each deployment episode **do**
  Observe local or shared data according to the stage communication model
  Compute $\mathbf{a}_{i,t}$ from the shared actor
  Apply action smoothing, circular projection, and safety filtering
  Execute the action and observe the next state
**end for**

and $\hat{A}_t$ is estimated by generalized advantage estimation from the team-average reward. The actor objective is complemented by a clipped value loss and an entropy bonus. During execution, each SUV computes its action from its own observation and the shared policy network.

To compare reinforcement-learning algorithm choices, IPPO, SAC, and TD3 were trained with two seeds and the same $2 \times 10^6$ environment steps on representative surface and subsurface cases. IPPO achieved the lowest surface final error of 317.3 km. SAC and TD3 achieved 494.7 and 548.5 km, respectively. IPPO also obtained the largest episode-level current-weighted coverage $C_w$, defined in Eq. (25), while requiring less training time and no replay buffer. We therefore use IPPO for the main, formation, and planner comparisons; the two-seed result is treated as bounded evidence rather than a universal algorithm ranking.

The complete reward coefficients, safety parameters, network dimensions, and PPO hyperparameters are summarized in Appendix A. The project repository and software package sources are listed in the Code and package availability section.

## 4.5. Surface and Subsurface Evaluation

The center-distance reward is used only during training and is absent from validation; validation therefore tests whether a frozen policy can infer the TC direction from wind observations in unseen events. The primary surface metric is the final fleet-averaged SUV-to-TC-center distance. A smaller value indicates closer core entry and higher observation benefit. Time-averaged distance is reported as a secondary process diagnostic.

For training seed $s$ and its validation dataset, the seed-level value is

$$D^{(s)}_{\text{final}} = \frac{1}{M_s} \sum_{e=1}^{M_s} \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \left\| \mathbf{x}_{i,e}(T_e) - \mathbf{x}_{\text{TC},e}(T_e) \right\|_2 , \quad (17)$$

where $T_e$ is the final decision time of validation segment $e$, and $M_s$ is the number of validation segments. Results are averaged over ten training seeds and reported with the sample standard deviation.

The process-level fleet-mean time-averaged distance for the same seed is

$$D^{(s)}_{\text{avg}} = \frac{1}{M_s} \sum_{e=1}^{M_s} \frac{1}{K_e} \sum_{k=1}^{K_e} \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \left\| \mathbf{x}_{i,e,k} - \mathbf{x}_{\text{TC},e,k} \right\|_2 , \quad (18)$$

where $K_e$ indexes the post-transition decision intervals. Distance is averaged over SUVs, episode time, and validation segments, then over training seeds.

For the execution-filter comparison, let $L_{i,e}$ be the path length of SUV $i$ in validation segment $e$, computed from consecutive recorded positions, and let $T_e$ be the corresponding episode duration. The reported fleet-mean ground speed is

$$\bar{v}^{(s)} = \frac{1000\, M_s^{-1} \sum_{e=1}^{M_s} N^{-1} \sum_{i=1}^{N} L_{i,e}}{M_s^{-1} \sum_{e=1}^{M_s} T_e}, \quad (19)$$

where $L_{i,e}$ is expressed in km, $T_e$ in seconds, and the factor 1000 converts km to m. The reported maximum speed is the mean over validation segments of each segment's maximum fleet ground speed:

$$V^{(s)}_{\text{peak}} = \frac{1}{M_s} \sum_{e=1}^{M_s} \max_{k=0,\dots,K_e-1} \max_{i=1,\dots,N} \frac{1000 \left\| \mathbf{x}_{i,e,k+1} - \mathbf{x}_{i,e,k} \right\|_2}{\Delta t},$$

(20)

with positions in km and $\Delta t = 10$ min.

Surface evaluation covers 4/8/12/16 SUVs on a 100 km ring with equal angular spacing. Training samples formation-center offsets within an 800 km radius; the frozen policies are evaluated at 100, 200, 400, 600, and 800 km. These are mission-scale test conditions, not tuned deployment optima. Metrics are first averaged over validation segments within each seed, then summarized over ten seeds. Paired 12-versus-20 m/s tests are two-sided and uncorrected across the twenty fleet-size/radius comparisons, so their $p$-values are exploratory.

For the subsurface evaluation, each depth from 0, 10, 20, 30, 40, 50, and 60 m is tested as a separate 20 h configuration with four SUVs and 1.5 or 2.0 m/s speed limits. The 200 km terminal surface tracking error marks the assumed start of descent and is used as the upper bound of the subsurface initialization radius at the corresponding surface-segment end time. The descent time is neglected: each SUV is initialized directly at its assigned depth. The surface endpoint positions themselves are not transferred. There is no inter-vehicle communication, so each SUV uses only its own five-frame current history and propulsion state. Active IPPO, random control, and passive drift share the same episodes, deployment seeds, motion model, and speed bound.

The three strategies differ only in how propulsion is generated:

$$\begin{aligned} \mathbf{a}_i^{\text{active}} &= \text{clip}\left(\pi_\theta(\mathbf{o}_i), -1, 1\right), \\ \mathbf{a}_i^{\text{random}} &\sim \mathcal{U}\left([-1,1]^2\right), \\ \mathbf{a}_i^{\text{drift}} &= \mathbf{0}. \end{aligned} \tag{21}$$

During evaluation, the active IPPO policy uses its deterministic mean action, whereas random control resamples a two-dimensional action every 10 min. Active IPPO and random control share the same propulsion limit and equations of motion; only the active policy conditions its action on the local current history. Passive drift applies zero propulsion and advances solely by ambient current advection.

For evaluation reporting, let $K$ be the number of recorded position increments and let $k = 0, \ldots, K$ index the archived positions. The recorded ground-path length, mean experienced current speed, and nominal coverage are

$$L_i(z) = \sum_{k=0}^{K-1} \left\| \mathbf{x}_{i,k+1} - \mathbf{x}_{i,k} \right\|_2, \tag{22}$$

$$\bar{V}_i(z) = \frac{1}{K+1} \sum_{k=0}^{K} \left\| \mathbf{u}_{\text{ocean}}(\mathbf{x}_{i,k}, z, t_k) \right\|_2. \tag{23}$$

$$C(z) = A_{\text{cell}} \left| \bigcup_{i=1}^{N} \bigcup_{k=0}^{K} \mathcal{G}(\mathbf{x}_{i,k}) \right|, \tag{24}$$

where $\mathcal{G}(\mathbf{x})$ is the 0.05° grid cell containing position $\mathbf{x}$, $|\cdot|$ counts unique cells, and $A_{\text{cell}} \approx (0.05° \times 111 \text{ km})^2$ is the nominal grid-cell area used for cross-method comparison. The figures report the fleet means $N^{-1}\sum_{i=1}^{N} L_i(z)$, $N^{-1}\sum_{i=1}^{N} \bar{V}_i(z)$, and the nominal coverage $C(z)$. Because neither current intensity nor coverage alone captures observation value, we also report the episode-level current-weighted coverage

$$C_{\text{w}}(z) = \frac{1}{M} \sum_{e=1}^{M} \left[ \frac{1}{N} \sum_{i=1}^{N} \bar{V}_{i,e}(z) \right] C_e(z), \tag{25}$$

where $M$ is the number of paired validation episodes. This quantity assigns a higher value to covering a broad region while encountering a strong current within that region, without assuming that either objective dominates in every episode.

### 4.6. Traditional Planning Baselines

We include four non-learned planners as secondary references [36, 38, 40]. The artificial-potential-field planner moves along the local gradient of observed wind or current speed and adds an offshore repulsion inside the coastal buffer. The receding-horizon A* planner builds an online local value map, re-plans a three-step minimum-cost route, executes the first action, and refreshes the plan every 15 decisions. The boustrophedon lawnmower planner follows fixed parallel coverage legs with phase offsets between vehicles and uses no environmental value map. The information-greedy planner evaluates eight candidate unit actions and selects the one with the largest predicted local wind or current value plus the coastal preference.

None of the planners receives the TC center, the complete reanalysis field, future frames, or the learned policy state. Surface planners use the same shared wind samples and fleet navigation state as IPPO. Underwater, each vehicle maintains a private map because communication is disabled. All four use the same 10 min interval, speed envelope, circular projection, surface safety filter, and subsurface landfall termination. They require no training and therefore have no training-seed variance. Surface planners are evaluated on all 768 held-out segments. Underwater planners use the same 500 paired episodes per depth-speed setting. These episodes comprise 50 test TCs with ten deployment seeds each.

## 5. Simulation and Results

### 5.1. Surface Active Tracking

Using the evaluation protocol in Section 4.5, we evaluate the extent to which the trained policies reduce forecast-induced deployment errors and approach the moving TC center and high-wind region.

Figure 3 reports the primary final tracking error from Eq. (17), for which smaller values are better, and the secondary time-averaged distance. Each value summarizes the validation dataset over ten independent training seeds.

Using the final tracking error as the operational observation benefit, the right panel of Fig. 3 reports the primary speed-limit comparison. Averaged over the four fleet

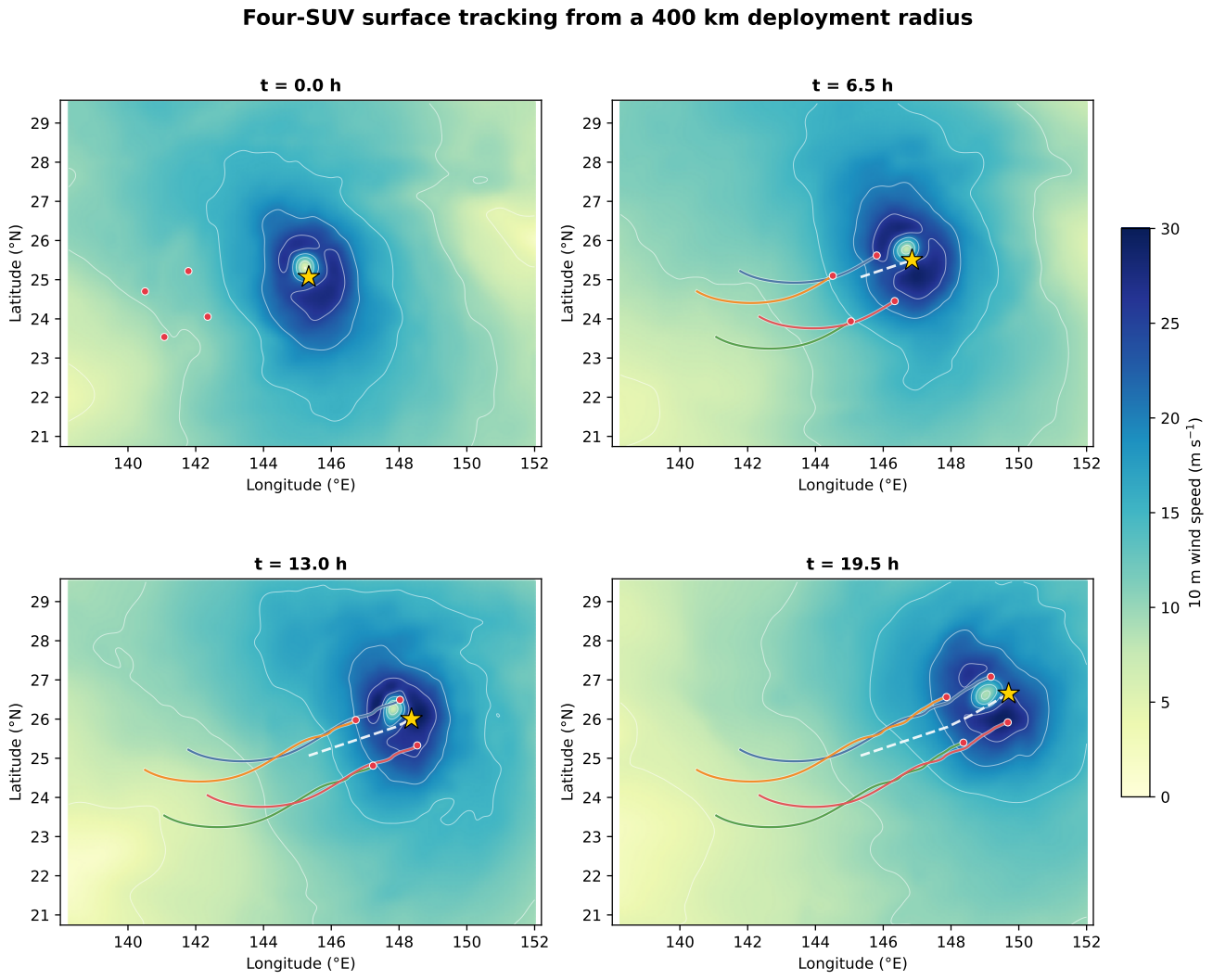



**Figure 2:** Four-SUV surface-tracking process for CHAMPI (2015) at the 20 m/s speed limit. The four panels show the initial deployment and subsequent states at approximately 6.5, 13.0, and 19.5 h. The color background is the spatially interpolated ERA5 10 m wind-speed field at each time. Small red dots mark vehicle positions, and the yellow star marks the TC center.

sizes and ten training seeds, the 20 m/s policy obtains final tracking errors of 197.1, 209.2, 260.9, 362.1, and 524.0 km at deployment radii of 100, 200, 400, 600, and 800 km, respectively. The corresponding 12 m/s values are 221.0, 238.9, 317.5, 450.9, and 635.1 km. Thus, 20 m/s yields a lower final tracking error in all 20 matched fleet-size/radius comparisons, corresponding to a higher operational observation benefit. Its fleet-averaged advantage increases from 23.8 km at 100 km to 111.1 km at 800 km.

The absolute distances still increase with deployment radius for both speed limits, which is expected because a finite propulsion speed cannot eliminate a larger initial displacement within every segment duration. The objective is therefore to minimize the final tracking error at each error level rather than to make it independent of deployment error. The final-tracking-error advantage of 20 m/s is larger than the corresponding time-averaged advantage: 23.8 versus 10.1 km at 100 km and 111.1 versus 84.2 km at 800 km. This indicates that the higher-speed policy continues correcting residual separation late in the episode rather than merely remaining closer during the initial transit.

Relative to 20 m/s, the 12 m/s policy reduces path length per SUV by 78.7, 95.5, 147.4, 196.6, and 233.3 km at the five radii and lowers mean ground speed by 1.74–4.18 m/s. Accordingly, 20 m/s provides the higher final observation benefit, whereas 12 m/s is preferable when shorter trajectories and lower speed are prioritized.

Time-averaged distance provides a secondary process-level diagnostic of whether proximity is maintained throughout an episode. Across the twenty matched fleet-size/radius comparisons, the 20 m/s policy has the smaller mean time-averaged distance in all 20 cases. The median paired difference ($d_{12} - d_{20}$) is +51.8 km. Uncorrected two-sided paired tests indicate lower distance at 20 m/s in 19 cases and at 12 m/s in none of the cases at $p < 0.05$. Because these

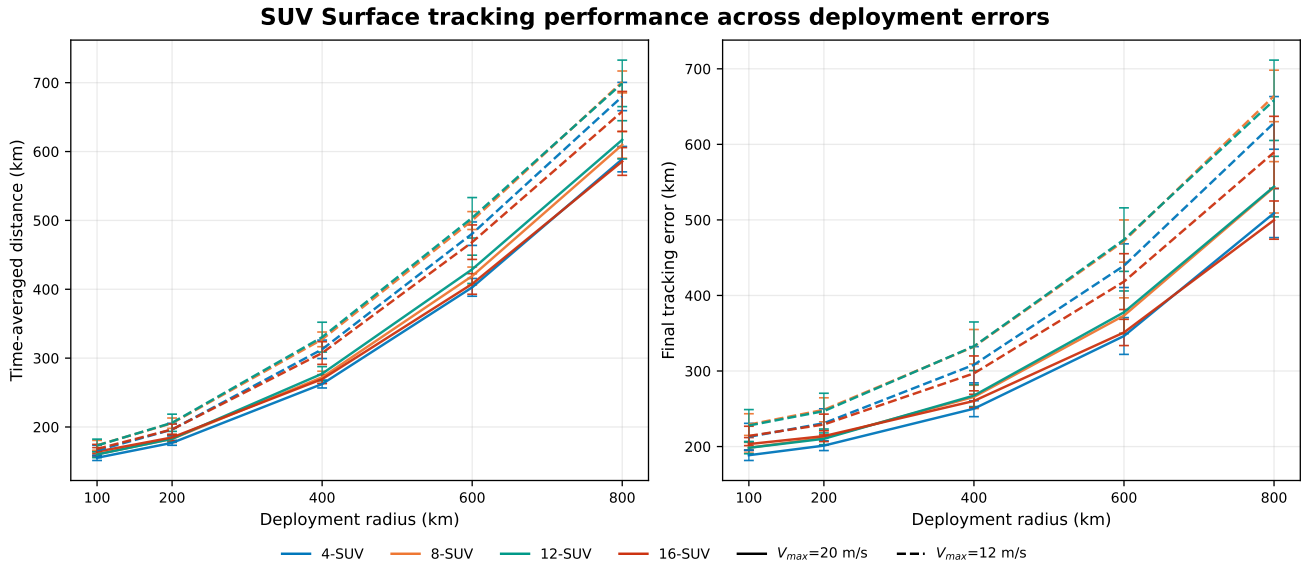



**Figure 3:** SUV surface tracking performance across deployment errors. The left panel shows the fleet-mean time-averaged distance to the TC center, representing whether the fleet remains close to the moving TC throughout an episode. The right panel shows the final tracking error to the TC center at the end of the episode; smaller values indicate higher operational observation benefit. Colors denote fleet sizes and line styles denote the 20 and 12 m/s speed limits. Each point summarizes ten independent training runs using ten random seeds. Error bars show the sample standard deviation.

comparisons were not adjusted for multiplicity, they provide exploratory rather than confirmatory evidence.

The relative time-averaged distance penalty of the 12 m/s policy is +6.3% at 100 km, +10.6% at 200 km, +18.2% at 400 km, +17.7% at 600 km, and +14.0% at 800 km. The non-monotonic relative pattern, together with the monotonic increase in absolute final-tracking-error benefit, is consistent with the finite time available to remove forecast-induced displacement. Overall, the results show that the policy learned from wind observations alone provides increasing operational value for large initial displacement errors when a 20 m/s speed envelope is available, while the 12 m/s envelope offers a lower-speed, shorter-path alternative.

Taken together, Figs. 3–4 and Table 5 connect the operational benefit metric to both population-level statistics and representative trajectories. The right panel of Fig. 3 is the primary benefit comparison: for each deployment radius, the preferred configuration is the one with the smallest final tracking error. Figure 2 shows the mechanism in the four-SUV, 400 km case, where the formation first turns along the observed wind structure and then reduces its separation from the TC center. Figure 4 shows that this inward correction persists from 100 to 800 km, although the final marker remains farther from the center as the initial deployment error increases. These representative paths explain why an effective controller can reduce error without making the final tracking error independent of deployment radius.

Table 5 provides a same-policy check of the benefit interpretation. Applying the execution filter lowers the fleet-mean final tracking error from 346.4 to 292.6 km, a 53.8 km improvement, while also shortening trajectories and reducing mean and peak speed. Thus the lower final tracking error, and therefore the higher operational observation benefit, is not obtained by simply commanding more aggressive propulsion. The trajectory figures and the ablation table jointly indicate that better final placement results from smoother closed-loop correction of the observed wind pattern.

To provide an internally consistent visual comparison, Figs. 2–6 use the same held-out CHAMPI (2015) segment. The surface figures show motion from the segment start to its endpoint, while the subsurface rollout starts from the segment-end anchor, representing the sequential transition from surface delivery to underwater observation.

Figure 2 resolves the temporal evolution for the four-SUV, 400 km case. At deployment, the four vehicles are dispersed around the formation center far from the TC. During the first several hours, the vehicles turn toward the strengthening wind region and begin to reduce the initial displacement. By 6.5 h, all four vehicles have initiated the inward turn; by 13.0 h they have entered the outer high-wind region; and by 19.5 h all four trajectories have turned into the high-wind branch and substantially reduced their initial displacement. The individual paths differ because each vehicle has its own state and position within the shared fleet-level wind observation; nevertheless, the fleet-level motion follows the wind pattern toward the TC core and illustrates long-range error correction in this representative episode.

Figure 4 shows how initial forecast error changes the surface search process. At 100–200 km, the formations converge rapidly and remain concentrated around the TC core. As the deployment radius increases to 600–800 km, the

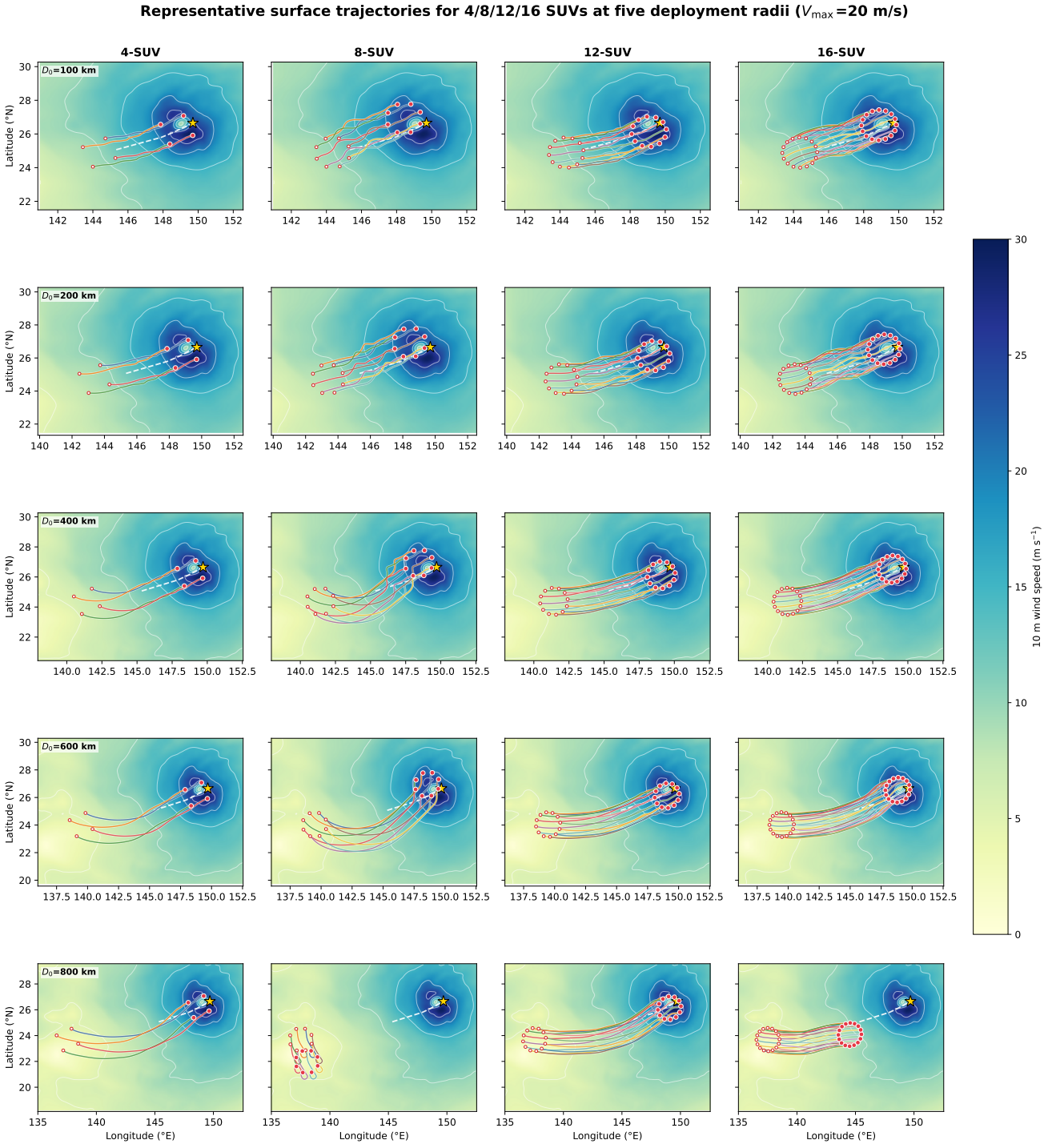



**Figure 4:** Representative CHAMPI (2015) trajectories for the final 20 m/s surface policy. Columns show 4-, 8-, 12-, and 16-SUV formations, while rows show nominal formation-center deployment radii of 100, 200, 400, 600, and 800 km. The color background is the spatially interpolated final-time ERA5 10 m wind-speed field. Thin colored lines are vehicle trajectories, open circles mark initial positions, small red dots mark final vehicle positions, and the yellow star marks the TC center at the end of the episode.

trajectories lengthen and fan out over a wider region before turning toward the TC. Increasing the fleet from 4 to 16 SUVs produces a denser set of sampled branches and broader spatial coverage, but it does not remove the need for long-range transit. In the 12- and 16-SUV cases, many paths overlap near the core because the shared wind observations guide the vehicles toward the same high-wind region. In these representative cases, fleet size mainly broadens the sampled approach region, whereas deployment error primarily determines the required transit distance.

The 600 and 800 km rows also reveal two coupled failure mechanisms at large initial displacement. At 600 km, the

representative fleet can still recover a usable inward direction from the observed wind-speed field and its spatial gradient, so the vehicles continue toward the TC despite the longer transit. At 800 km, the vehicles must first overcome a larger geometric separation with finite speed and a finite episode duration; in addition, the TC-induced wind speed and its local gradient become weaker and less distinctive at that range. The reduced signal quality makes the approximate bearing toward the TC more ambiguous, so the policy may approach more slowly, change direction repeatedly, or fail to recover the TC within the episode. These two effects are coupled: longer travel time increases the consequence of even a small directional error, while the weaker remote wind signature makes such an error more likely.

## 5.2. Surface Formation Comparison

The ring, line, and grid formations provide three different ways to allocate spatial observations across eight SUVs. Each was trained with the same 2-million-step protocol, deployment distribution, and safety layer at both 12 and 20 m/s, then evaluated without retraining at 100–800 km (Table 4). Averaged over the ten speed–radius conditions, the ring gives the lowest mean final error of 346.7 km, followed by the grid at 356.6 km and the line at 364.4 km. The row-wise result is condition-dependent: at 12 m/s, the line is best at 100 km and the ring is best at 200–800 km; at 20 m/s, the line is best at 100–400 km, the grid at 600 km, and the ring at 800 km.

Formation geometry is summarized at each post-transition state $\mathbf{x}_{i,e,k}$. With centroid $\bar{\mathbf{x}}_{e,k} = N^{-1}\sum_i \mathbf{x}_{i,e,k}$, the episode means are

$$R_{\mathrm{form},e} = \frac{1}{K_e}\sum_{k=1}^{K_e}\frac{1}{N}\sum_{i=1}^{N}\left\|\mathbf{x}_{i,e,k} - \bar{\mathbf{x}}_{e,k}\right\|_2, \tag{26}$$

$$S_{\mathrm{pair},e} = \frac{1}{K_e}\sum_{k=1}^{K_e}\frac{2}{N(N-1)}\sum_{1\le i<j\le N}\left\|\mathbf{x}_{i,e,k} - \mathbf{x}_{j,e,k}\right\|_2. \tag{27}$$

Reported formation radii and pairwise spacings are means of $R_{\mathrm{form},e}$ and $S_{\mathrm{pair},e}$ over the 768 validation segments at each speed–radius condition.

The line formation produces the shortest per-vehicle path in all ten conditions, averaging 470.3 km versus 605.3 km for the ring, but it contracts the mean formation radius to 57.1 km and the pairwise spacing to 85.2 km. The ring retains a 99.9 km radius and 143.6 km spacing, giving a broader observation footprint. The grid preserves a comparable footprint with a 103.6 km radius and 156.8 km spacing, but improves the row-wise final error only for the 20 m/s, 600 km case and has longer paths than the line in every condition. We therefore retain the ring for the main broad-coverage configuration, while treating the line as a transit-efficient alternative and the grid as a spacing-preserving sensitivity case rather than a universally superior formation.

Figure 5 visualizes one matched CHAMPI segment. The formation geometry is not rigidly preserved because each policy moves under the same shared wind observation but with its own state. This representative episode illustrates how a compact line can move efficiently, whereas the ring and grid retain a broader sampling footprint. The aggregate 768-segment results, rather than the selected episode, determine the formation choice. We therefore retain the ring as the main configuration and report the alternatives as a sensitivity study rather than as evidence that one formation is universally optimal.

## 5.3. Execution-Layer Action Filtering

Table 5 reports the low-pass filtering ablation over the same trained actor, validation dataset, and 10 min decision interval. Without filtering, the 4-, 8-, 12-, and 16-SUV configurations travel 1294.9–1331.5 km per vehicle, with mean speeds of 19.23–19.73 m/s and maximum speeds of 19.92–20.00 m/s. With the execution-layer filter ($\beta = 0.8$), path length falls to 690.8–770.9 km, mean speed to 11.11–12.72 m/s, and maximum speed to 16.13–18.20 m/s. The final tracking error changes from 288.2 to 258.2 km for four SUVs, from 305.2 to 308.6 km for eight SUVs, from 478.5 to 330.0 km for 12 SUVs, and from 313.6 to 273.4 km for 16 SUVs. Averaged over the four fleet sizes, it decreases from 346.4 to 292.6 km, a reduction of 53.8 km or 15.5%. Thus, filtering not only avoids degrading final tracking but improves it on average: three fleet sizes improve, whereas the eight-SUV case increases only slightly, by 3.4 km.

The same comparison shows reductions for every fleet size: path length decreases by 563.4, 547.1, 618.5, and 573.6 km for 4, 8, 12, and 16 SUVs, respectively, while maximum speed decreases by 1.80, 2.29, 3.87, and 2.94 m/s. The 12-SUV configuration has the largest relative path-length reduction, although the effect is not monotonic in fleet size. These results show that the execution filter improves final tracking on average while substantially shortening trajectories and reducing mean and peak speed.

## 5.4. Subsurface Strategy Comparison

For each depth, four SUVs seek higher current speed; the central comparison is therefore the fleet-mean current speed experienced along each trajectory, together with its trajectory length and spatial coverage. The comparison follows the protocol in Section 4.5. Figure 6 first illustrates the resulting trajectory structure for the three strategies.

Figure 6 illustrates the qualitative trajectory construction for the three strategies at shallow, intermediate, and deep sampling layers. Across these three representative depths, the mean experienced current speeds of active control, random control, and passive drift remain close within each depth, whereas their path lengths differ substantially: active control requires the longest paths and passive drift the shortest. The background fields also show that the spatial current structure changes with depth, which is why a single-depth example is insufficient. These episodes remain illustrative; all comparative inference is deferred to the final ten-seed, seven-depth evaluation.

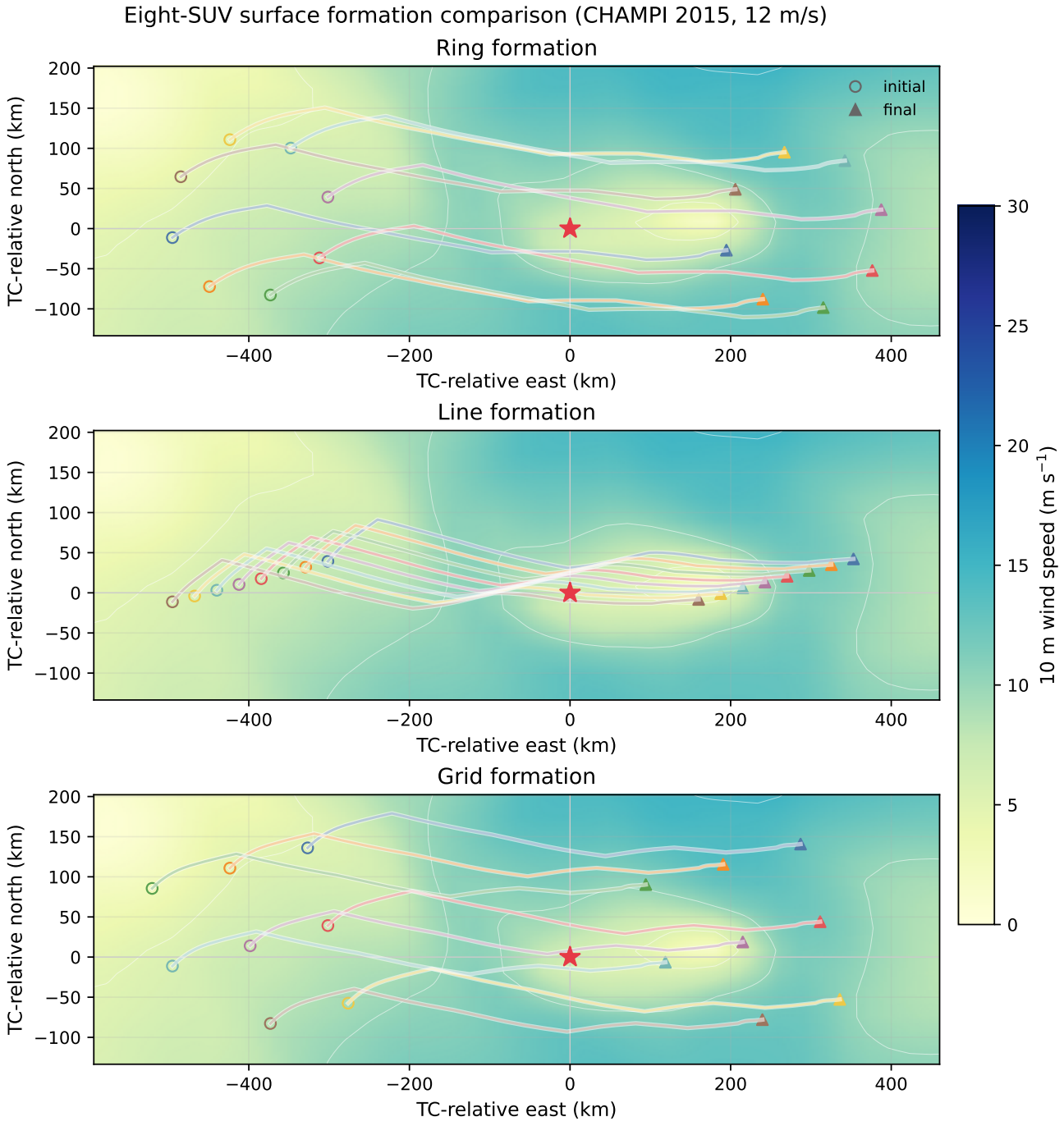



**Figure 5:** Representative surface trajectory comparison for ring, line, and grid formations with eight SUVs at 12 m/s. Open circles denote initial positions, triangles denote final positions, and the red star denotes the TC center. The color background and contours show the spatially interpolated ERA5 10 m wind-speed field at the final simulation step. Axes are relative to the instantaneous TC center.

Figure B.1 reports the final ten-seed results at all seven depths from 0 to 60 m. At every depth and both propulsion limits, active IPPO attains a higher mean experienced current speed than passive drift and random control. The improvement over passive drift ranges from 2.1% to 5.4%, while the corresponding improvement over random control ranges from 2.0% to 5.1%. Random control remains close to passive drift in mean current speed but travels substantially farther.

The longer trajectories of active IPPO provide an intended observation advantage. Its path is 3.6–7.3 times that of passive drift, allowing the four SUVs to move through a larger spatial footprint and acquire more current profiles and contextual samples. The corresponding nominal coverage

**Table 4**
Surface initial-formation comparison for eight SUVs. Each policy was trained with formation-center offsets sampled inside an 800 km radius and evaluated without retraining at fixed offsets of 100, 200, 400, 600, and 800 km on the same 768 held-out TC segments. Error is the final SUV-to-best-track-center distance and path is the per-vehicle trajectory length. Bold entries are the best value in each speed/radius row; error and path are assessed separately. All distances are in km.

| Speed | Train radius | Eval radius | Ring | | Line | | Grid | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| (m/s) | (km) | (km) | Error | Path | Error | Path | Error | Path |
| 12 | 800 | 100 | 225.8 | 398.1 | **222.9** | **325.9** | 236.7 | 367.0 |
| 12 | 800 | 200 | **250.6** | 428.4 | 253.9 | **335.7** | 257.0 | 398.3 |
| 12 | 800 | 400 | **335.9** | 475.0 | 368.1 | **321.8** | 345.5 | 420.6 |
| 12 | 800 | 600 | **480.7** | 499.0 | 523.9 | **301.6** | 487.8 | 423.5 |
| 12 | 800 | 800 | **648.1** | 505.6 | 733.2 | **273.6** | 691.7 | 410.7 |
| 20 | 800 | 100 | 197.2 | 599.6 | **164.5** | **538.5** | 203.0 | 615.0 |
| 20 | 800 | 200 | 209.8 | 653.7 | **179.6** | **583.7** | 213.8 | 656.2 |
| 20 | 800 | 400 | 262.7 | 765.2 | **250.9** | **651.8** | 258.1 | 743.4 |
| 20 | 800 | 600 | 354.4 | 840.2 | 381.4 | **677.5** | **353.3** | 792.9 |
| 20 | 800 | 800 | **501.9** | 888.0 | 566.1 | **693.2** | 518.7 | 830.8 |

**Table 5**
Execution-layer low-pass filtering for 4/8/12/16 surface SUVs on 768 held-out segments from 50 unseen TCs in the 500-TC dataset. Each trained actor is evaluated with the filter off and on ($\beta = 0.8$) on the same validation episodes.

| Fleet | Filter | Final tracking error (km) | Path per SUV (km) | Mean speed (m/s) | Maximum speed (m/s) |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 4 | Off | 288.2 | 1331.5 | 19.73 | 20.00 |
| 4 | On | **258.2** | **768.1** | **12.72** | **18.20** |
| 8 | Off | **305.2** | 1318.0 | 19.57 | 19.97 |
| 8 | On | 308.6 | **770.9** | **12.58** | **17.68** |
| 12 | Off | 478.5 | 1309.3 | 19.34 | 20.00 |
| 12 | On | **330.0** | **690.8** | **11.11** | **16.13** |
| 16 | Off | 313.6 | 1295.0 | 19.23 | 19.92 |
| 16 | On | **273.4** | **721.4** | **11.94** | **16.98** |

Final tracking error is the fleet average of the individual SUV-to-best-track-center distances at the final time step. Off/on changes only the execution-layer filter on the same trained actor.

increases by roughly 3.3–5.7 times. Across the 140 seed-configuration comparisons, the active policy has a higher mean experienced current speed in 133 cases; uncorrected paired tests classify 117 as significant improvements and three as significant deficits. Therefore, active control is not judged only by a small increase in mean current speed: it also increases the amount and spatial extent of the collected underwater data. Passive drift remains the low-motion reference and cannot deliberately relocate toward higher-current regions.

The propulsion limit consistently affects trajectory extent. At all seven depths, the 2.0 m/s policy travels 1.24–1.31 times farther than the 1.5 m/s policy because the larger speed envelope permits more movement within the same 20 h episode. This result links future platform speed directly to observation capacity: a faster SUV can cover more of the TC-induced current field and collect more profiles, although endurance and control constraints must still be considered. Mean experienced drift current decreases from 0.521 to 0.292 m/s between 0 and 60 m, and passive-drift paths contract from 33.6 to 17.1 km. Active paths decrease more moderately, from 122.1 to 98.7 km at 1.5 m/s and from 155.1 to 124.6 km at 2.0 m/s. The increasing active/passive path ratio with depth therefore reflects both weaker ambient advection and the largely depth-independent propulsion envelope, rather than an increasing policy advantage.

The current fields in Fig. 6 contain pronounced horizontal gradients and localized high-speed bands. The fleet-mean experienced current speed in the final experiments ranges from 0.29 to 0.54 m/s across methods and depths, but this average includes the full sampled trajectory rather than only the strongest-current patches. Local current speeds can therefore be substantially higher than the fleet mean and are of comparable magnitude to the 1.5 and 2.0 m/s propulsion limits. Active propulsion can relocate a vehicle toward such patches, whereas passive drift follows the ambient flow without steering. The completed comparisons show that active control uses this capability to obtain both a modestly higher mean current speed and a substantially larger observation footprint and data volume.

## 5.5. Comparison with Traditional Planners

Table 6 summarizes the comparison with four traditional planners. Across all 40 matched surface configurations,

**Table 6**
Comparison with four traditional planning baselines on the held-out TC segments from the same 500-TC train/test split. Surface values are means over the 4/8/12/16-SUV fleets, both speed limits, and all five deployment radii. Subsurface values are means over all seven depths and both propulsion limits. Smaller errors and paths are better; higher current, coverage, and current-weighted coverage are better. No single method is best in all subsurface columns.

| **Panel A: surface tracking** | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| Method | Final error (km) | Time-averaged distance (km) | Path per SUV (km) | Current-weighted coverage ($10^3$ m s$^{-1}$ km$^2$) |
| Parameter-sharing IPPO | **341.7** | **349.1** | **463.6** | – |
| Potential field | 416.5 | 405.9 | 727.6 | – |
| Receding-horizon A* | 459.0 | 430.4 | 824.9 | – |
| Lawnmower coverage | 554.8 | 478.4 | 508.4 | – |
| Information greedy | 467.0 | 429.6 | 525.2 | – |
| **Panel B: subsurface observation** | | | | |
| Method | Mean current (m/s) | Nominal coverage (km$^2$) | Path (km) | Current-weighted coverage ($10^3$ m s$^{-1}$ km$^2$) |
| Parameter-sharing IPPO | 0.409 | **3630** | 126.4 | **1.657** |
| Potential field | **0.445** | 2002 | 113.2 | 1.026 |
| Receding-horizon A* | 0.427 | 2300 | **95.7** | 1.092 |
| Lawnmower coverage | 0.409 | 2901 | 110.6 | 1.283 |
| Information greedy | 0.430 | 1545 | 103.7 | 0.740 |

parameter-sharing IPPO attains the lowest final tracking error and time-averaged distance. Relative to the potential-field, A*, lawnmower, and information-greedy planners, its mean final error is reduced by 74.8, 117.3, 213.1, and 125.3 km, respectively. The IPPO path is shorter than those of the first two baselines in all 40 comparisons. It is also shorter than the lawnmower and information-greedy paths in 28 and 29 of the 40 comparisons; their fleet-average paths are still longer, but the path advantage is less uniform. This result indicates that the learned controller preserves direct inward motion while adapting more effectively to local wind structure than the local-gradient and rolling-map planners.

Underwater, the four baselines are not dominated on every metric. The potential-field planner attains the highest mean experienced current at 0.445 m/s, followed by information-greedy control at 0.430 m/s and A* at 0.427 m/s. IPPO and lawnmower coverage are close to each other at approximately 0.409 m/s. A* instead has the shortest mean path at 95.7 km, whereas IPPO produces the largest nominal coverage of 3630 km$^2$. The corresponding nominal coverages are 2002 km$^2$ for potential field, 2300 km$^2$ for A*, 2901 km$^2$ for lawnmower coverage, and 1545 km$^2$ for information-greedy control. The episode-level current-weighted coverage $C_w(z)$ is nevertheless larger for IPPO than for every baseline in all 14 depth–speed settings after paired testing, by factors of 1.53–1.72 for potential field, 1.40–1.61 for A*, 1.23–1.35 for lawnmower coverage, and 2.07–2.54 for information-greedy control. IPPO therefore provides the broadest current-weighted observation, but not the strongest value in every individual underwater metric.

Appendix Table A.1 resolves these averages by deployment radius and ocean depth. IPPO retains the lowest final error and time-averaged distance at all five surface radii. Underwater, the metric-specific ordering is consistent at every depth: potential field gives the highest mean experienced current, IPPO gives the largest nominal coverage, and A* gives the shortest path. The aggregate rankings are therefore not driven by a single radius or depth.

## 6. Conclusion

This study introduced a simulation-based parameter-sharing IPPO framework for coordinated surface–subsurface tropical-cyclone observation with Blue Whale-class SUVs. The operational concept assumes that the Blue Whale-class SUVs are deployed from a mother ship, such as a large research vessel, or from an offshore floating platform such as the Far-Seas Floating Island. The 12 m/s surface and 1.5 m/s submerged limits approximate the current Blue Whale design speeds, whereas 20 m/s and 2.0 m/s represent possible future upgrades; these near-current and future-upgrade settings were compared within their respective tasks. The 12 and 20 m/s surface envelopes cover 93.8% and 98.9% of the sampled IBTrACS TC translation speeds, respectively, whereas the submerged envelopes are intentionally used for local sampling rather than TC chasing. Event-specific environments aligned ERA5 10 m winds, HYCOM currents at seven depths from 0 to 60 m, and IBTrACS tracks for 500 TCs, with 450 TCs used for training and 50 unseen TCs for testing.

The surface and subsurface tasks have different objectives. At the surface, the fleet uses shared wind observations to follow the TC and reach its high-wind region; the final tracking error measures how close the randomly deployed SUVs finish to the TC center. Across ten seeds, the 20 m/s policy achieved smaller time-averaged tracking distances than 12 m/s, and its advantage increased with deployment error. The 12 m/s policy instead produced shorter paths and lower speeds. Low-pass filtering reduced the fleet-mean final tracking error from 346.4 to 292.6 km while also shortening trajectories and reducing peak speed. These results show that the closed observation–decision–motion loop can guide the fleet inward using wind observations alone during validation.

At depth, four SUVs are assigned to each layer and seek the strongest observable current rather than the surface-center projection. Active IPPO, random control, and passive

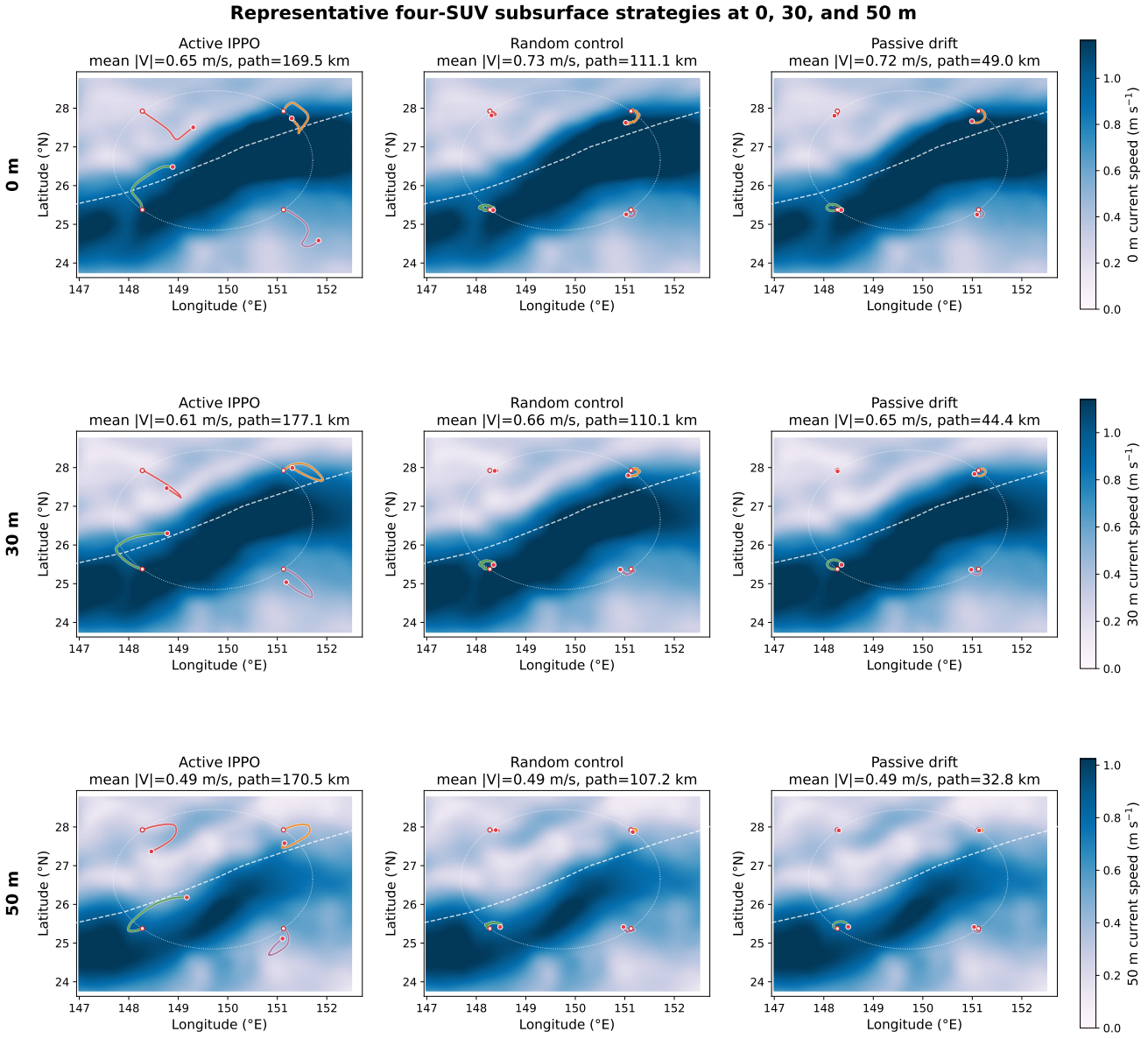



**Figure 6:** Representative four-SUV trajectories at 0, 30, and 50 m for the same CHAMPI (2015) segment used in the surface trajectory figures. These three depths provide shallow, intermediate, and deep examples from the full 0–60 m evaluation matrix. Rows denote depth and columns denote Active IPPO, random control, and passive drift. The propulsion limit is 2.0 m/s and the episode duration is 20 h. Background color is the spatially interpolated episode-mean HYCOM current speed at the corresponding depth; dashed white curves show the TC best track, open circles mark the initial vehicle positions, the dotted circle marks the 200 km initialization boundary, and small red arrows mark final vehicle positions.

drift are compared under identical episodes and propulsion limits. Across all seven depths, active IPPO raises the mean experienced current speed by 2.1–5.4% and produces trajectories 3.6–7.3 times longer than passive drift, together with about 3.3–5.7 times greater nominal spatial coverage. The learned propulsion therefore serves two purposes: it guides the SUVs toward higher-current water and keeps them moving over a wider area, producing more profiles and more contextual observations than a drift-only strategy. Compared with the four traditional planners, IPPO attains the lowest final tracking error in all 40 matched surface configurations. Underwater, potential field attains the highest mean local current and A* the shortest path, whereas IPPO attains the largest current-weighted spatial coverage in all 14 settings. Its advantage therefore comes from the combination of current exposure and broad spatial sampling rather than metric-wise dominance.

The 2.0 m/s policy travels 1.24–1.31 times farther than the 1.5 m/s policy at every depth. A larger speed envelope permits more movement within the same 20 h evaluation horizon and therefore creates more opportunities to observe TC-induced currents. This identifies a direct path for future platform development: increasing SUV speed could raise the observation benefit for subsurface temperature, salinity,

current, and biogeochemical fields, provided that endurance and control stability remain acceptable. The full seven-depth matrix therefore supports active sampling as an observation-capacity strategy while also showing how expanded trajectories must be managed operationally.

The present evidence is simulation-based and uses a mission-level horizontal point-mass model. Field validation, operational forecast impact, and calibrated six-degree-of-freedom vehicle dynamics remain future work. The results show generalization to unseen TCs within the simulated western North Pacific environment, but they do not constitute a guarantee of sim-to-real performance.

## Code and package availability

The code and processed results are available at https://github.com/DYHAI/SUV-MARL-TC. The experiments used Python 3.11, PyTorch 2.11.0 (CUDA 12.8 build), Stable-Baselines3 2.9.0, and Gymnasium 1.2.2 for policy training; NumPy 2.4.6 and pandas 2.3.3 for numerical and tabular processing; SciPy 1.17.1, xarray 2026.7.0, netCDF4 1.7.4, and h5py 3.16.0 for analysis and NetCDF processing; and Matplotlib 3.11.1 for visualization. All policy training was performed on CPU.

## Acknowledgements

This project is supported by the National Natural Science Foundation of China (42530402 and 42227901), the National Natural Science Foundation of China Youth Science Fund Project (62603673), the China Postdoctoral Science Foundation (2025M783467), the Project of State Key Laboratory of Satellite Ocean Environment Dynamics (SOEDZZ2527), and the Innovation Group Project of Southern Marine Science and Engineering Guangdong Laboratory (Zhuhai) (311024004).

# A. Reward and IPPO Hyperparameters

Table A.1 reports the traditional-planning comparison with the two surface distance metrics separated by deployment radius and the three subsurface observation metrics separated by depth.

Table A.1: Distance and observation metrics for the traditional planner comparison on the held-out TC segments. Panel A reports the two surface distance metrics by deployment radius, averaged over the four fleet sizes and both speed limits. Panel B reports mean experienced current speed, nominal coverage, and path per SUV at each depth, averaged over the two propulsion limits.

| **Panel A: surface distance metrics** | | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| Radius | Metric | IPPO | PF | A* | Lawn | Greedy |
| 100 km | Final error (km) | **209.0** | 290.9 | 325.9 | 366.0 | 296.0 |
| | Time-averaged distance (km) | **165.0** | 230.0 | 250.6 | 232.9 | 212.4 |
| 200 km | Final error (km) | **224.1** | 294.9 | 329.9 | 394.5 | 311.0 |
| | Time-averaged distance (km) | **191.5** | 248.2 | 267.1 | 285.9 | 244.3 |
| 400 km | Final error (km) | **289.2** | 354.1 | 395.2 | 504.5 | 406.2 |
| | Time-averaged distance (km) | **294.9** | 343.1 | 367.7 | 441.7 | 374.3 |
| 600 km | Final error (km) | **406.5** | 477.5 | 531.5 | 661.2 | 560.4 |
| | Time-averaged distance (km) | **451.4** | 506.7 | 538.8 | 621.7 | 559.0 |
| 800 km | Final error (km) | **579.5** | 665.1 | 712.6 | 847.6 | 761.5 |
| | Time-averaged distance (km) | **642.4** | 701.5 | 727.8 | 809.7 | 757.8 |
| **Panel B: subsurface metrics by depth** | | | | | | |
| Depth | Metric | IPPO | PF | A* | Lawn | Greedy |
| 0 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.538 | **0.572** | 0.548 | 0.537 | 0.553 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3957** | 2235 | 2442 | 3054 | 1581 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 138.6 | 121.0 | **102.0** | 115.8 | 106.3 |
| 10 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.473 | **0.510** | 0.488 | 0.473 | 0.493 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3794** | 2177 | 2404 | 3006 | 1622 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 132.7 | 118.9 | **100.5** | 114.4 | 107.0 |
| 20 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.446 | **0.481** | 0.461 | 0.444 | 0.464 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3845** | 2116 | 2375 | 2977 | 1625 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 133.6 | 117.4 | **99.1** | 113.6 | 106.6 |
| 30 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.408 | **0.446** | 0.429 | 0.410 | 0.430 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3608** | 2049 | 2316 | 2923 | 1579 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 126.4 | 114.1 | **96.0** | 111.6 | 104.4 |
| 40 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.366 | **0.404** | 0.386 | 0.368 | 0.391 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3606** | 1941 | 2263 | 2864 | 1531 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 124.4 | 110.6 | **93.7** | 109.4 | 102.5 |
| 50 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.329 | **0.363** | 0.349 | 0.327 | 0.352 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3375** | 1800 | 2185 | 2788 | 1464 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 117.8 | 107.1 | **90.9** | 106.5 | 100.8 |
| 60 m | Mean experienced current (m/s) | 0.304 | **0.337** | 0.325 | 0.301 | 0.325 |
| | Nominal coverage ($km^2$) | **3225** | 1696 | 2116 | 2694 | 1411 |
| | Path per SUV (km) | 111.6 | 103.4 | **87.8** | 103.1 | 98.5 |

Table A.2 summarizes the reward, action-filter, and safety parameters used in the surface and underwater experiments. Table A.3 lists the shared IPPO network and training hyperparameters.

Table A.2: Surface and subsurface reward, action-filter, and coastal-safety parameters used in the final experiments.

| Parameter | Symbol | Value | Description and applicable task |
|---|---|---|---|
| **Panel A: surface reward and controller parameters** | | | |
| Proximity-cost distance cap | $D_{\max}$ | 300 km | Distance cost is capped at 300 km to prevent excessively large gradients from distant initial deployments. |
| Distance normalization scale | $D_{\text{scale}}$ | 100 km | Normalization scale used by the proximity and radius-excess reward terms. |
| Near-center threshold | $d_{\text{near}}$ | 100 km | Threshold defining the discrete near-center bonus. |
| Near-center bonus | $b_{\text{near}}$ | 1.0 | Bonus assigned when an SUV is within 100 km of the TC center. |
| Radius-excess threshold | $R_{\text{form}}$ | 100 km | Reference radius used by the additional distance penalty beyond 100 km. |
| Radius-excess weight | $W_{\text{form}}$ | 1.0 | Weight of the penalty applied when an individual SUV is farther than 100 km from the TC center. |
| Action-change weight | $\lambda_u$ | 0.05 | Weight of the squared action change $\|\bar{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k} - \bar{\mathbf{a}}_{i,k-1}\|_2^2$ between successive executed commands. |
| Action-filter coefficient | $\beta$ | 0.8 | Coefficient of $\mathbf{a}_k^{\text{filt}} = (1-\beta)\mathbf{a}_k^{\text{raw}} + \beta\mathbf{a}_{k-1}^{\text{filt}}$. This is a controller setting rather than a reward term. |
| Surface reward clipping range | $[r_{\min}, r_{\max}]$ | $[-5, 2]$ | Clipping range applied to the team-averaged surface reward. |
| **Panel B: underwater active-control comparison parameters** | | | |
| Current-speed normalization | $V_{\text{norm}}$ | 1.0 m/s | Current-intensity reward is implemented as $\min(\|\mathbf{u}\|/V_{\text{norm}}, R_{\max})$. |
| Current-reward cap | $R_{\max}$ | 2.0 | Upper bound of the normalized current-speed reward. |
| Downstream-alignment weight | $\beta_{\parallel}$ | 0.5 | Weight of the positive propulsion–current alignment term. |
| Underwater reward clipping range | $[r_{\min}, r_{\max}]$ | $[-5, 5]$ | Clipping range applied to the team-averaged underwater reward during active control training. |
| **Panel C: coastal-safety parameters by stage** | | | |
| Land penalty | $P_{\text{land}}$ | 20 | Penalty applied when an SUV enters a land cell in either stage. |
| Nearshore buffer distance | $D_{\text{buf}}$ | 100 km | Width of the soft nearshore penalty buffer in both stages. |
| Nearshore penalty weight | $W_b$ | 8.0 | Maximum soft-penalty weight within the 100 km nearshore buffer in either stage. |
| Minimum deployment offshore distance | $D_{\text{deploy}}$ | 100 km | Minimum coastline distance required by offshore-only rejection sampling during surface deployment; it is not applied to subsurface initialization. |
| Action-filter safety margin | $D_{\text{filter}}$ | 100 km | Surface-stage distance below which the onshore component of the commanded action is removed. The subsurface comparison does not use this filter. |

Note: the final subsurface comparison consists of active IPPO, random control, and passive drift. Passive drift does not optimize a learned propulsion policy or reward.

Table A.3: Parameter-sharing IPPO network, training, and deployment hyperparameters used in the final surface and subsurface experiments.

| Parameter | Symbol | Value | Description |
|---|---|---|---|
| Algorithm | – | PPO | Stable-Baselines3 PPO with parameter sharing and independent per-agent action sampling. |
| Return aggregation | – | Team average | The environment reward is averaged across the $N$ SUVs before computing the shared PPO return. |
| Optimizer | – | Adam | Adam optimizer used for the actor and critic parameters. |
| Policy network | – | $2 \times 256$ MLP | Actor: Linear($d_{\text{obs}}$, 256)–Tanh– Linear(256, 256)–Tanh–Linear(256, $d_{\text{act}}$). |
| Value network | – | $2 \times 256$ MLP | Critic: Linear($d_{\text{obs}}$, 256)–Tanh– Linear(256, 256)–Tanh–Linear(256, 1). Per-agent values are summed during training. |
| Per-agent observation dimension | $d_{\text{obs}}$ | 14/26/38/50 | Surface wind observations for 4/8/12/16 SUVs, respectively. The four-SUV underwater active-control comparison uses $d_{\text{obs}} = 17$. |
| Surface observation | – | Wind at 10 m above sea level | Using ideal surface communication, each SUV receives the current wind speed and components at 10 m above the sea surface observed by every SUV in the fleet. |
| Underwater observation | – | Current only | With no inter-vehicle communication, the active IPPO controller observes only its own local current speed and components at the assigned ocean depth, together with a five-frame history and its own normalized propulsion velocity. |
| Action dimension | $d_{\text{act}}$ | 2 per SUV | Continuous east–north velocity command in $[-1, 1]^2$, followed by circular projection to enforce the maximum-speed constraint. |
| Parallel environments | $N_{\text{env}}$ | 4 | Number of vectorized training environments. |
| Rollout length | $n_{\text{steps}}$ | 2048 | Number of steps collected per environment before each PPO update. |
| Mini-batch size | $B$ | 256 | Mini-batch size used during each gradient update. |
| Optimization epochs | $N_{\text{epochs}}$ | 10 | Number of passes over each rollout. |
| Learning rate | $\alpha$ | $3 \times 10^{-4}$ | Adam learning rate used for the actor and critic. |
| Discount factor | $\gamma$ | 0.99 | Reward discount factor. |
| GAE parameter | $\lambda_{\text{GAE}}$ | 0.95 | Generalized advantage estimation applied to the team-average reward. |
| Policy clipping range | $\epsilon$ | 0.2 | Clipping range of the PPO probability ratio. |
| Value clipping range | $\epsilon_v$ | 0.2 | Clipping range of the value-function update. |
| Entropy coefficient | $c_{\text{ent}}$ | 0.01 | Entropy regularization coefficient. |
| Value-loss coefficient | $c_v$ | 0.5 | Weight of the value-function loss. |
| Maximum gradient norm | $g_{\max}$ | 0.5 | Global gradient clipping threshold. |
| Training steps | $T$ | $2 \times 10^6$ | Nominal environment steps per training run. |
| Independent seeds | – | 0–9 | Ten random seeds for each selected surface or active-control configuration. |
| Surface training forecast-error radius | $R_{\text{train}}$ | 0–800 km | The candidate surface formation-center radial offset is sampled uniformly in [0, 800] km, with a uniformly sampled bearing. This models the assumed upper bound of TC track-forecast error; offshore-only rejection sampling is then applied as part of the safety layer. |
| Surface validation center offsets | $R_{\text{test}}$ | 100/200/400/600/800 km | Fixed surface formation-center offsets with random bearings, evaluated without retraining. These values represent increasing track-forecast displacement. |
| Underwater initialization radius | $R_{0,\text{u}}$ | ≤200 km | At the end time of each surface segment, the separate subsurface episode initializes four vehicles with radial offsets sampled uniformly in [0, 200] km and uniformly sampled bearings. Surface endpoint positions are not transferred. The 0–800 km forecast-error protocol is surface-only. |
| Decision interval | $\Delta t$ | 10 min | Environmental observation and action interval. |
| Surface formation radius | $R_{\text{ring}}$ | 100 km | Surface SUVs use equal angular spacing of $360°/N$ on a 100 km ring. |
| Surface fleet sizes | $N$ | 4/8/12/16 | Number of SUVs in the final surface configurations. |
| Underwater fleet size | $N$ | 4 | Number of SUVs in each active-IPPO, random-control, and passive-drift case. |
| Underwater depths below the sea surface | $z$ | 0/10/20/30/40/50/60 m | Seven ocean-current observation depths used in the final subsurface matrix. |
| Underwater methods | – | Active IPPO; random; drift | Three paired methods evaluated on the same episodes and deployments. |
| Underwater duration | $H$ | 20 h | Fixed simulation horizon for the final subsurface comparison; this is not an endurance specification. |
| Surface speed limits | $V^{\text{s}}_{\max}$ | 12 or 20 m/s | Two surface-speed scenarios. |
| Submerged speed limits | $V^{\text{u}}_{\max}$ | 1.5 or 2.0 m/s | Two resultant propulsion-speed limits after unit-disk action projection, used for the active-control comparison. |
| Compute device | – | CPU | All reported IPPO experiments were trained on CPU. |

## B. Supplementary Underwater Strategy Comparison

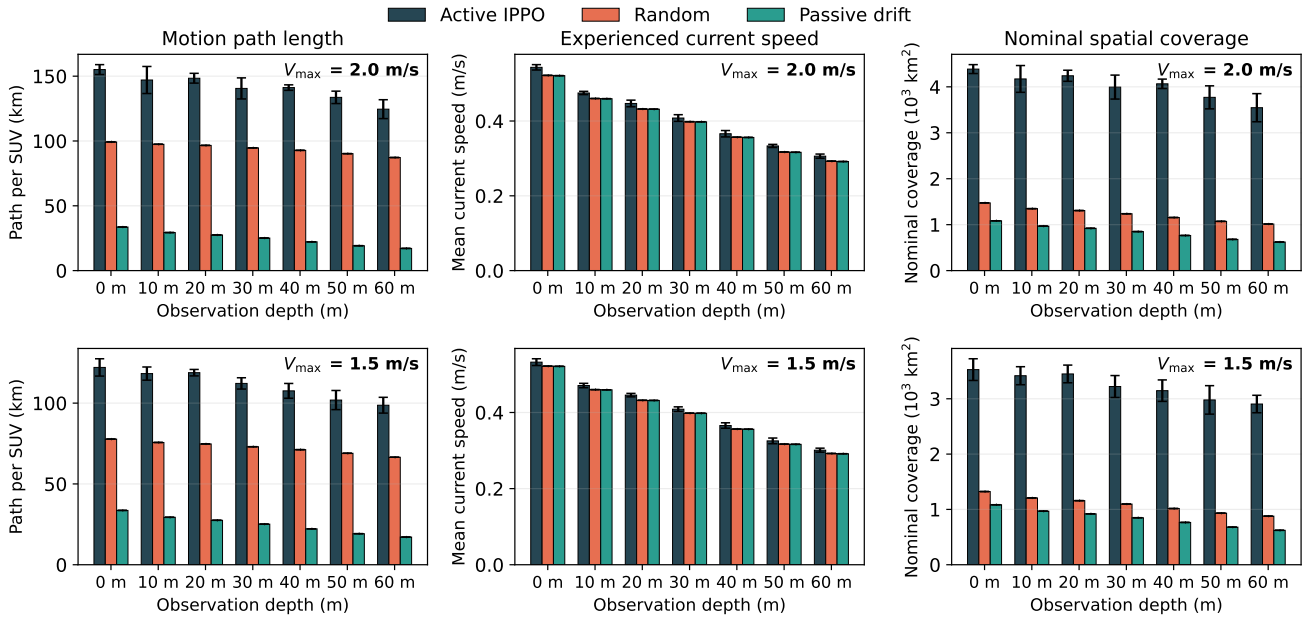



Figure B.1: Comparison of active control, random control, and passive drift in the 20 h subsurface task at seven depths from 0 to 60 m. Rows show maximum propulsion speeds of 2.0 and 1.5 m/s; columns report the fleet-mean motion path length, mean experienced current speed, and nominal spatial coverage area. Error bars show the sample standard deviation across ten active-policy training seeds. Random control and passive drift are paired baselines without training-seed variability.

## References


[1] T. Knutson, S. J. Camargo, J. C. L. Chan, et al., Tropical Cyclones and Climate Change Assessment: Part I: Detection and Attribution, Bulletin of the American Meteorological Society 100 (10) (2019) 1987–2007. doi:10.1175/BAMS-D-18-0189.1.

[2] T. Knutson, S. J. Camargo, J. C. L. Chan, et al., Tropical Cyclones and Climate Change Assessment: Part II: Projected Response to Anthropogenic Warming, Bulletin of the American Meteorological Society 101 (3) (2020) E303–E322. doi:10.1175/BAMS-D-18-0194.1.

[3] S. S. Chand, K. J. E. Walsh, S. J. Camargo, et al., Declining Tropical Cyclone Frequency under Global Warming, Nature Climate Change 12 (7) (2022) 655–661. doi:10.1038/s41558-022-01388-4.

[4] Y. Li, Y. Tang, S. Wang, et al., Recent Increases in Tropical Cyclone Rapid Intensification Events in Global Offshore Regions, Nature Communications 14 (1) (2023) 5167. doi:10.1038/s41467-023-40605-2.

[5] W. Mei, S.-P. Xie, Intensification of Landfalling Typhoons over the Northwest Pacific since the Late 1970s, Nature Geoscience 9 (10) (2016) 753–757. doi:10.1038/ngeo2792.

[6] L. Liu, Y. Wang, R. Zhan, et al., Increasing Destructive Potential of Landfalling Tropical Cyclones over China, Journal of Climate 33 (9) (2020) 3731–3743. doi:10.1175/JCLI-D-19-0451.1.

[7] K. Balaguru, C.-C. Chang, L. R. Leung, et al., A Global Increase in Nearshore Tropical Cyclone Intensification, Earth's Future 12 (5) (2024) e2023EF004230. doi:10.1029/2023EF004230.

[8] J. P. Kossin, K. A. Emanuel, S. J. Camargo, Past and Projected Changes in Western North Pacific Tropical Cyclone Exposure, Journal of Climate 29 (16) (2016) 5725–5739. doi:10.1175/JCLI-D-16-0076.1.

[9] J. P. Cangialosi, E. Blake, M. DeMaria, et al., Recent Progress in Tropical Cyclone Intensity Forecasting at the National Hurricane Center, Weather and Forecasting 35 (5) (2020) 1913–1922. doi:10.1175/WAF-D-20-0059.1.

[10] X. Huang, X. Peng, J. Fei, et al., Evaluation and Error Analysis of Official Tropical Cyclone Intensity Forecasts during 2005–2018 for the Western North Pacific, Journal of the Meteorological Society of Japan. Ser. II 99 (1) (2021) 139–163. doi:10.2151/jmsj.2021-008.

[11] H. Zhang, H. He, W.-Z. Zhang, et al., Upper Ocean Response to Tropical Cyclones: A Review, Geoscience Letters 8 (1) (2021) 1. doi:10.1186/s40562-020-00170-8.

[12] K. Balaguru, P. Chang, R. Saravanan, et al., Ocean Barrier Layers' Effect on Tropical Cyclone Intensification, Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences 109 (36) (2012) 14343–14347. doi:10.1073/pnas.1201364109.

[13] M. A. Bourassa, T. Meissner, I. Cerovecki, et al., Remotely Sensed Winds and Wind Stresses for Marine Forecasting and Ocean Modeling, Frontiers in Marine Science 6 (2019) 443. doi:10.3389/fmars.2019.00443.

[14] B. W. Klotz, E. W. Uhlhorn, Improved Stepped Frequency Microwave Radiometer Tropical Cyclone Surface Winds in Heavy Precipitation, Journal of Atmospheric and Oceanic Technology 31 (11) (2014) 2392–2408. doi:10.1175/JTECH-D-14-00028.1.

[15] R. Domingues, A. Kuwano-Yoshida, P. Chardon-Maldonado, et al., Ocean Observations in Support of Studies and Forecasts of Tropical and Extratropical Cyclones, Frontiers in Marine Science 6 (2019) 446. doi:10.3389/fmars.2019.00446.

[16] J. D. Doyle, J. R. Moskaitis, J. W. Feldmeier, et al., A View of Tropical Cyclones from Above: The Tropical Cyclone Intensity Experiment, Bulletin of the American Meteorological Society 98 (10) (2017) 2113–2134. doi:10.1175/BAMS-D-16-0055.1.

[17] J. J. Cione, et al., Eye of the Storm: Observing Hurricanes with a Small Unmanned Aircraft System, Bulletin of the American Meteorological Society 101 (2) (2020) E186–E205. doi:10.1175/BAMS-D-19-0169.1.

[18] D. L. Rudnick, Ocean Research Enabled by Underwater Gliders, Annual Review of Marine Science 8 (1) (2016) 519–541. doi:10.1146/annurev-marine-122414-033913.

[19] J. Hwang, N. Bose, S. Fan, AUV Adaptive Sampling Methods: A Review, Applied Sciences 9 (15) (2019) 3145. doi:10.3390/app9153145.

[20] J. Dong, R. Domingues, G. Goni, et al., Impact of Assimilating Underwater Glider Data on Hurricane Gonzalo (2014) Forecasts, Weather and Forecasting 32 (3) (2017) 1143–1159. doi:10.1175/WAF-D-16-0182.1.

[21] G. R. Halliwell, G. J. Goni, M. F. Mehari, et al., OSSE Assessment of Underwater Glider Arrays to Improve Ocean Model Initialization for Tropical Cyclone Prediction, Journal of Atmospheric and Oceanic Technology 37 (3) (2020) 467–487. doi:10.1175/JTECH-D-18-0195.1.

[22] X. Chen, F. Zhang, Development of a Convection-Permitting Air–Sea-Coupled Ensemble Data Assimilation System for Tropical Cyclone Prediction, Journal of Advances in Modeling Earth Systems 11 (11) (2019) 3474–3496. doi:10.1029/2019MS001795.

[23] L. Phillipson, Y. Li, R. Toumi, Strongly Coupled Assimilation of a Hypothetical Ocean Current Observing Network within a Regional Ocean–Atmosphere Coupled Model: An OSSE Case Study of Typhoon Hato, Monthly Weather Review 149 (5) (2021) 1317–1336. doi:10.1175/MWR-D-20-0108.1.

[24] L. Liu, A. Mehra, D. Kleist, et al., Impact of Assimilating Satellite and Glider Observations on Hurricane Isaias (2020) Forecast Using Marine JEDI, Weather and Forecasting 38 (9) (2023) 1807–1826. doi:10.1175/WAF-D-22-0014.1.

[25] S. Chen, J. A. Cummings, J. M. Schmidt, et al., Targeted Ocean Sampling Guidance for Tropical Cyclones, Journal of Geophysical Research: Oceans 122 (5) (2017) 3505–3518. doi:10.1002/2017JC012727.

[26] M. Mu, F. Zhou, H. Wang, A Method for Identifying the Sensitive Areas in Targeted Observations for Tropical Cyclone Prediction: Conditional Nonlinear Optimal Perturbation, Monthly Weather Review 137 (5) (2009) 1623–1639. doi:10.1175/2008MWR2640.1.

[27] C.-C. Wu, J.-H. Chen, P.-H. Lin, et al., Targeted Observations of Tropical Cyclone Movement Based on the Adjoint-Derived Sensitivity Steering Vector, Journal of the Atmospheric Sciences 64 (7) (2007) 2611–2626. doi:10.1175/JAS3974.1.

[28] C. Dong, G. Wu, Y. Zhang, H. Zhang, Q. Wang, An Innovative Submersible Unmanned Vessel: Blue Whale, Ocean-Land-Atmosphere Research 4 (2025) 0102. doi:10.34133/olar.0102.

[29] Y. Tian, W. Li, Z. Wang, Development and Validation of a Wave-Propelled Semi-Submersible Unmanned Vehicle, Polish Maritime Research 31 (4) (2024) 31–42. doi:10.2478/pomr-2024-0048.

[30] H. Zhou, K. Liu, H. Xu, X. Feng, Experimentally Verified Depth Control of an Unmanned Semi-Submersible Vehicle, IEEE Access 7 (2019) 94254–94262. doi:10.1109/ACCESS.2019.2925149.

[31] H. Chen, J. Li, Y. Xuan, et al., First Rocketsonde Launched from an Unmanned Semi-Submersible Vehicle, Advances in Atmospheric Sciences 36 (4) (2019) 339–345. doi:10.1007/s00376-018-8249-5.

[32] Shanghai Jiao Tong University, Video: Toward the Far Seas and Deep Ocean: The "Far-Seas Floating Island" Supports Stable Marine Research, Shanghai Jiao Tong University News, published 28 March 2026 (2026).
URL https://news.sjtu.edu.cn/mtjj/20260329/220899.html

[33] C. M. Wang, Z. Y. Tay, Very Large Floating Structures: Applications, Research and Development, Procedia Engineering 14 (2011) 62–72. doi:10.1016/j.proeng.2011.07.007.

[34] P. Palo, Mobile Offshore Base: Hydrodynamic Advancements and Remaining Challenges, Marine Structures 18 (2) (2005) 133–147. doi:10.1016/j.marstruc.2005.07.007.

[35] P. E. Hart, N. J. Nilsson, B. Raphael, A Formal Basis for the Heuristic Determination of Minimum Cost Paths, IEEE Transactions on Systems Science and Cybernetics 4 (2) (1968) 100–107. doi:10.1109/TSSC.1968.300136.

[36] S. Koenig, M. Likhachev, D* Lite, in: Eighteenth National Conference on Artificial Intelligence, 2002, pp. 476–483.

[37] S. Karaman, E. Frazzoli, Sampling-Based Algorithms for Optimal Motion Planning, The International Journal of Robotics Research 30 (7) (2011) 846–894. doi:10.1177/0278364911406761.

[38] O. Khatib, Real-Time Obstacle Avoidance for Manipulators and Mobile Robots, The International Journal of Robotics Research 5 (1) (1986) 90–98. doi:10.1177/027836498600500106.

[39] D. Q. Mayne, J. B. Rawlings, C. V. Rao, et al., Constrained Model Predictive Control: Stability and Optimality, Automatica 36 (6) (2000) 789–814. doi:10.1016/S0005-1098(99)00214-9.

[40] M. Panda, B. Das, B. Subudhi, et al., A Comprehensive Review of Path Planning Algorithms for Autonomous Underwater Vehicles, International Journal of Automation and Computing 17 (3) (2020) 321–352. doi:10.1007/s11633-019-1204-9.

[41] P. F. Christiano, J. Leike, T. Brown, et al., Deep Reinforcement Learning from Human Preferences, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems, Vol. 30, 2017, pp. 4299–4307.

[42] L. Ouyang, J. Wu, X. Jiang, et al., Training Language Models to Follow Instructions with Human Feedback, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems, Vol. 35, 2022, pp. 27730–27744. doi:10.52202/068431-2011.

[43] D. Guo, D. Yang, H. Zhang, et al., DeepSeek-R1 Incentivizes Reasoning in LLMs through Reinforcement Learning, Nature 645 (8081) (2025) 633–638. doi:10.1038/s41586-025-09422-z.

[44] J. Hwangbo, J. Lee, A. Dosovitskiy, et al., Learning Agile and Dynamic Motor Skills for Legged Robots, Science Robotics 4 (26) (2019) eaau5872. doi:10.1126/scirobotics.aau5872.

[45] OpenAI: Marcin Andrychowicz, B. Baker, M. Chociej, et al., Learning Dexterous In-Hand Manipulation, The International Journal of Robotics Research 39 (1) (2020) 3–20. doi:10.1177/0278364919887447.

[46] E. Kaufmann, L. Bauersfeld, A. Loquercio, et al., Champion-Level Drone Racing Using Deep Reinforcement Learning, Nature 620 (7976) (2023) 982–987. doi:10.1038/s41586-023-06419-4.

[47] O. Vinyals, I. Babuschkin, W. M. Czarnecki, et al., Grandmaster Level in StarCraft II Using Multi-Agent Reinforcement Learning, Nature 575 (7782) (2019) 350–354. doi:10.1038/s41586-019-1724-z.

[48] C. Berner, G. Brockman, B. Chan, et al., Dota 2 with Large Scale Deep Reinforcement Learning (2019). arXiv:1912.06680, doi:10.48550/arXiv.1912.06680.

[49] C. S. de Witt, T. Gupta, D. Makoviichuk, et al., Is Independent Learning All You Need in the StarCraft Multi-Agent Challenge? (2020). arXiv:2011.09533, doi:10.48550/arXiv.2011.09533.

[50] C. Yu, A. Velu, E. Vinitsky, et al., The Surprising Effectiveness of PPO in Cooperative Multi-Agent Games, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems, Vol. 35, 2022, pp. 24611–24624. doi:10.52202/068431-1787.

[51] M. Samvelyan, T. Rashid, C. S. de Witt, et al., The StarCraft Multi-Agent Challenge, in: Proceedings of the 18th International Conference on Autonomous Agents and MultiAgent Systems, International Foundation for Autonomous Agents and Multiagent Systems, 2019, pp. 2186–2188. doi:10.65109/lvzz5205.

[52] E. Fiorelli, N. E. Leonard, P. Bhatta, et al., Multi-AUV Control and Adaptive Sampling in Monterey Bay, IEEE Journal of Oceanic Engineering 31 (4) (2006) 935–948. doi:10.1109/JOE.2006.880429.

[53] I. Masmitja, M. Martin, T. O'Reilly, et al., Dynamic Robotic Tracking of Underwater Targets Using Reinforcement Learning, Science Robotics 8 (80) (2023) eade7811. doi:10.1126/scirobotics.ade7811.

[54] S. Wang, C. Lin, G. Han, et al., Multi-AUV Cooperative Underwater Multi-Target Tracking Based on Dynamic-Switching-Enabled Multi-Agent Reinforcement Learning, IEEE Transactions on Mobile Computing 24 (5) (2025) 4296–4311. doi:10.1109/TMC.2024.3521889.

[55] Z. Zhao, Q. Hu, H. Feng, et al., A Cooperative Hunting Method for Multi-AUV Swarm in Underwater Weak Information Environment with Obstacles, Journal of Marine Science and Engineering 10 (9) (2022) 1266. doi:10.3390/jmse10091266.

[56] X. Li, P. Dong, H. Tao, et al., A Multi-AUV Cooperative Search Scheme Based on Acoustic-Optical Communication and Deep Reinforcement Learning, in: 2024 IEEE International Conference on High Performance Computing and Communications, 2024, pp. 785–790. doi:10.1109/HPCC64274.2024.00108.

[57] F. Qi, X. Ma, J. Yang, Tropical Cyclone Tracking for Autonomous Underwater Vehicles Based on Forecast Path Correction Model, Ocean Engineering 293 (2024) 116768. doi:10.1016/j.oceaneng.2024.116768.

[58] F. Qi, X. Ma, Y. Ding, J. Yang, Unmanned Active Observation Planning of Near-Surface Ocean under Tropical Cyclone Condition, Journal of Ocean Engineering and Science 11 (6) (2026) 2077–2088. doi:10.1016/j.joes.2026.05.012.

[59] J. Schulman, F. Wolski, P. Dhariwal, et al., Proximal Policy Optimization Algorithms (2017). arXiv:1707.06347, doi:10.48550/arXiv.1707.06347.

[60] H. Hersbach, B. Bell, P. Berrisford, et al., The ERA5 Global Reanalysis, Quarterly Journal of the Royal Meteorological Society 146 (730) (2020) 1999–2049. doi:10.1002/qj.3803.

[61] E. P. Chassignet, H. E. Hurlburt, O. M. Smedstad, et al., The HYCOM (HYbrid Coordinate Ocean Model) Data Assimilative System, Journal of Marine Systems 65 (1–4) (2007) 60–83. doi:10.1016/j.jmarsys.2005.09.016.

[62] K. R. Knapp, M. C. Kruk, D. H. Levinson, et al., The International Best Track Archive for Climate Stewardship (IBTrACS): Unifying Tropical Cyclone Data, Bulletin of the American Meteorological Society 91 (3) (2010) 363–376. doi:10.1175/2009BAMS2755.1.